The Politics of Criminalized Places: Aggressive Policing and Political Mobilization

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Abstract

Aggressive police tactics have expanded definitions of criminal behavior, empowered officers to stop and detain people on thin pretexts, and led to the pervasive surveillance of entire neighborhoods. But the political effects of these forms of criminalization remain poorly understood. I leverage within-neighborhood variation in exposure to a series of anti-gang crackdowns in Los Angeles that expanded the criminal code and lowered the standard of suspicion for police stops within court-ordered safety zones. Using administrative data on voting, a geocoded panel survey, and a difference-in-difference design, I find that these crackdowns generated large, durable increases in voter registration, turnout, and civic engagement. Mobilization was concentrated among Black, Latino, and young people and accompanied by significant increases in support for criminal justice reform, consistent with backlash to policing seen as racially targeted. The results highlight how visible, traceable forms of punitive policing can push highly policed communities toward political engagement.

Keywords: voter turnout, policing, policy feedback, race and ethnicity, gang injunctions

Short Title: The Politics of Criminalized Places

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Aggressive police tactics have become a focal point in political efforts to reform law enforcement in the United States. Exemplified by stop-and-frisk, broken windows, and zero tolerance policing, these policies empower officers to crack down on minor offenses and to stop large numbers of people for "furtive" or "suspicious" behavior. These tactics have made involuntary encounters with law enforcement a routine feature of life for millions of Americans, and have contributed to vast inequalities in how citizens can expect to be treated by the police (Fagan et al. 2016; National Academies of Sciences, Engineering, and Medicine 2018). High levels of unfocused and indiscriminate enforcement can expose entire neighborhoods to aggressive police behavior, creating environments in which wrongdoing is assumed (Muñiz 2015) and raising the baseline risk of coercive police contact for anyone in the area. This type of policing has been linked to a variety of negative outcomes including low levels of police legitimacy (Braga, Brunson, and Drakulich 2019), acute psychological distress, physical ailments, and reduced educational attainment (Bacher-Hicks and de la Campa 2020; Brunson 2007; Legewie and Fagan 2019; Rios 2011).

A large body of evidence indicates that those who are stopped, arrested, or incarcerated as a result of these policies become less likely to vote (Ben-Menachem and Morris 2023; Lerman and Weaver 2020; White 2019). Yet there are strong reasons to expect the political consequences of aggressive policing to extend well beyond those who experience direct contact with the police (Burch 2013). Qualitative studies of heavily policed communities find that residents of these places come to see policing in their neighborhoods as following a different set of rules, including what counts as "cooperation" or "resistance," how quickly officers resort to coercion, and how readily they use force. These observations can contribute to the view that who draws scrutiny has less to do with behavior than with appearance, age, and location (Brunson 2007; Epp, Maynard-Moody, and Haider-Markel 2014; Muñiz 2015; Rios 2011). Even those who have never been stopped or arrested may alter their movements and behavior in public to avoid unwanted police contact, and may view the risk of police coercion as a signal of how government views and values their community (Prowse, Weaver, and Meares 2020).

These understandings shape expectations about how people are likely to be treated by law enforcement and may have different political consequences than direct contact with the criminal justice system. Living under constant threat of unwanted police contact may demobilize people in much the same way that arrest and incarceration do—eroding faith in the responsiveness of government and raising the perceived costs of interacting with formal institutions (Lerman and Weaver 2020). But this type of criminalization may also provoke backlash. Those who see the risk of contact with the police as only loosely connected to guilt or individual behavior are likely to view this risk as fundamentally unjust (Walker 2020). And this sense of threat or injustice may be particularly likely to generate political mobilization when these tactics target predominantly Black and Latino neighborhoods, reframing what might otherwise be individual grievances as shared experiences tied to racial group membership (Garcia-Rios et al. 2023; Nuamah and Ogorzalek 2021). To the extent that this process is driven by the anticipation of coercive contact rather than by personal encounters with officers, it may shape the behavior of those who have not borne the material and social costs of being stopped or arrested, leaving them better positioned to translate these grievances into political action.

Testing these claims poses a variety of challenges. Differences across neighborhoods in the reach of criminalizing policies are difficult to observe directly. Scholars often rely on administrative data on stops and arrests, which capture only a small subset of police-citizen interactions and rely on strong and untestable assumptions about police tactics and behavior (Knox, Lowe, and Mummolo 2020; Neil and Winship 2019). More broadly, the nonrandom distribution of policing and its close links to social, economic, and racial inequalities make it difficult to imagine a plausible counterfactual when trying to separate the effects of policing from other drivers of neighborhood-level political participation (White 2022).

To address these challenges, I leverage a series of court-ordered anti-gang crackdowns in Los Angeles that created substantial within-neighborhood variation in the reach and punitiveness of law enforcement. Between 1993 and 2013, the City of Los Angeles successfully pursued a series of civil restraining orders that dramatically expanded the legal authority of officers to crack down on suspected gang activity within predetermined geographic areas known as "safety zones." By expanding the grounds for criminal enforcement, increasing criminal punishments, and enabling the use of widespread investigative stops within the safety zones, these anti-gang injunctions empowered law enforcement to aggressively surveil, question, and detain residents, plausibly elevating the risk of coercive police contact for everyone living within the targeted areas. The well-defined boundaries of the safety zones allow me to identify the exact places where the policy applied, rather than relying on the ad hoc definitions of spatial exposure common in studies of policing and political behavior (e.g. Laniyonu 2019; Morris and Shoub 2024), and because the orders remained in force for many years, I am able to trace their effects over more than a decade.

Combining original data on the timing and location of each gang injunction with geocoded administrative voter and election data from 1992 to 2020, I use a stacked difference-in-difference design with Census tract fixed effects to compare changes in registrations and voting in Census blocks covered by injunctions to changes in uncovered but demographically similar Census blocks in the same neighborhood. Identification rests on the assumption that within a given neighborhood (i.e. Census tract), observed trends in political participation in blocks outside the safety zone boundaries serve as a valid counterfactual for trends in blocks within the safety zone. A range of robustness checks presented below support this claim, including the finding that registrations and voting in the treated and untreated blocks trended similarly in the decade prior to the start of the injunctions.

I find that voting and registrations increased by 6% and 11%, respectively, within the blocks covered by gang injunctions—a result robust to alternate definitions of "neighborhood," as well as difference-in-difference specifications that use weighting and synthetic controls to account for potential differences in observable characteristics between the treated and control groups. These large effects are highly localized and durable, extending over a decade after the injunction orders were first put in place. Mobilization was greatest among Black, Latino, and young residents, groups most likely to be affected by injunction-related enforcement and behavioral restrictions. Consistent with qualitative evidence that opposition to the injunctions was driven by concerns about racial profiling and police aggression (Barajas 2007; Muñiz 2015), voters in the safety zones also became significantly more supportive of criminal justice reform. Notably, panel survey evidence suggests that mobilization was not limited to those who reported direct experiences of police discrimination. This pattern is consistent with the idea that increased political engagement was driven not only by direct experiences with the police, but also by the policy-induced risk of coercive contact and backlash to a punitive policy that visibly targeted predominantly Black and Latino communities.

I consider several alternative mechanisms through which gang injunctions might have increased electoral engagement. First, I consider the possibility that gang injunctions encouraged gentrification, which may have increased registrations and voting through higher population growth and the in-migration of affluent, high propensity voters. I find no evidence of compositional changes that could explain the mobilization effects I find; in fact, the populations of the safety zones slightly *decreased* relative to the surrounding areas. Panel survey data showing within-individual increases in civic engagement among existing residents similarly suggests that these effects are not driven by compositional change. Second, I examine whether increased political participation might have been driven by reductions in crime, which may encourage voting and other forms of community engagement by making people feel safer (Trelles and Carreras 2012). The evidence suggests that gang injunctions did not improve feelings of safety within the safety zones. Nor do changes in turnout appear to be mediated by changes in crime.

These findings deepen our understanding of how policing shapes political life in the United States. While previous work has primarily focused on how stops, arrests, and incarceration affect political behavior (Lerman and Weaver 2020; White 2019), these encounters are downstream consequences of legal and policy changes whose own political effects remain poorly understood (Beckett and Herbert 2009; Soss and Weaver 2017). Gang injunctions provide a rare opportunity to study the political consequences of these changes directly. Methodologically, the court-ordered boundaries of the safety zones also provide unusual causal leverage for a literature in which credible identification has typically relied on fleeting variation in experiences with the criminal justice system (e.g. Ang and Tebes 2024; Burch 2013)—variation that sits uneasily alongside theoretical accounts emphasizing the cumulative, sustained nature of policing in heavily policed communities.

The marked divergence between these findings and the demobilizing effects of policing documented in prior work suggests that there is likely something politically distinctive about policies that impose visible, legible threats of police coercion on entire communities. Gang injunctions were visibly concentrated in Black and Latino neighborhoods and directly traceable to a specific governmental decision—characteristics that scholars of policy feedback identify as conducive to political mobilization (Nuamah and Ogorzalek 2021). If so, understanding the political consequences of policing may require attending not only to what officers do, but to the design of the policies under which they operate. Together, my results provide new insights into political behavior in highly policed communities, and contribute to broader literatures on race, urban politics, policy feedback, and political participation.

Policing, Criminalization, and Electoral Mobilization

Law enforcement in the United States has long been organized around a "reactive" model of policing that prioritizes criminal investigations and apprehensions alongside rapid responses to calls-for-service (National Academies of Sciences, Engineering, and Medicine 2018). But the perceived inability of police agencies to control crime in the 1980s and 1990s led a cohort of researchers, police chiefs, victims' rights groups, and policymakers in America's largest cities to embrace a new, far more aggressive and proactive style of law enforcement (National Academies of Sciences, Engineering, and Medicine 2018; Soss and Weaver 2017). Policies such as stop-and-frisk, hot spots, and zero tolerance policing sought to preempt criminal activity by focusing police resources on places and people labeled as "high risk," and aggressively targeting low-level offenses with high levels of stops, searches, and arrests. These tactics have been accompanied by a proliferation of new legal tools including exclusion zones, loitering ordinances, and injunction orders that use civil law to expand the reach of criminal enforcement in specific places, making behaviors that are legal elsewhere grounds for detention or arrest within them (Beckett and Herbert 2009). In practice, these legal and policy changes have overwhelmingly targeted poor, predominantly Black and Latino neighborhoods (Fagan et al. 2016; Soss and Weaver 2017), generating a style of indiscriminate enforcement that scholars argue reflects a broader shift in how the state governs racially marginalized communities (Soss and Weaver 2017). This transformation of specific neighborhoods into sites of intensive regulation and enforcement can be understood as a form of *place-based criminalization*, in which the spatial concentration of expanded criminal and civil codes and intrusive, indiscriminate policing raises the risk of coercive contact for everyone living in a targeted neighborhood, not only those engaged in criminal activity.

In neighborhoods subjected to place-based criminalization, scholars find that the frequency and intensity of police activity in public spaces can make the risk of coercive police contact a chronically salient feature of daily life (Rios 2011; Muñiz 2015), reinforced by the experiences of family members, peers, and neighbors who have been stopped, questioned, or arrested (Bell 2017; Brunson 2007; Stoudt, Fine, and Fox 2011). Over time, these direct and vicarious experiences can accumulate into shared understandings of how policing operates in these communities—expectations of who is likely to be stopped, under what circumstances, and how encounters are likely to unfold—that extend well beyond those with direct police contact (Brunson 2007; Epp, Maynard-Moody, and Haider-Markel 2014; Rios 2011). For Black people in particular (and in some contexts, Latinos), these expectations are often inseparable from the view that the police treat their communities differently (Gau and Brunson 2010; Peffley and Hurwitz 2010). Aggressive policing tactics have deepened racial inequalities in stops, searches, and arrests (Fagan et al. 2016; Soss and Weaver 2017), and many connect these disparities to long histories of racial discrimination by the police, in which Black and Latino communities have been simultaneously subjected to harsh punishment and oversight while receiving inadequate protection from crime and violence (Prowse, Weaver, and Meares 2020; Soss and Weaver 2017; Walker 2020). Scholars find that residents of heavily policed neighborhoods often generalize from these experiences, extending their assessment of the police to government and public institutions more broadly (Prowse, Weaver, and Meares 2020). Existing work has linked these perceptions to lower levels of political engagement, as people come to view formal institutions as instruments of control rather than as venues through which their concerns might be addressed (Lerman and Weaver 2020). But the same indiscriminate nature of these tactics that can lead to alienation may also create openings for political mobilization.

Most directly, the anticipatory threats created by place-based criminalization may mobilize residents who have a personal stake in resisting policies that could potentially harm them or their loved ones (Campbell 2002). Aggressive tactics may also generate moral outrage through the perception that one's community is unfairly being singled out, or by weakening the perceived link between punishment and culpability, leaving residents of heavily policed neighborhoods less likely to view the enforcement they observe as justified. Walker (2020) finds a similar dynamic among those with direct and proximal contact with the criminal justice system, arguing that this process of externalization fosters a sense of injustice that can drive participation in community meetings, petitioning, and protests. Criminalizing policies may be particularly likely to generate a sense of threat or injustice when they are geographically targeted at predominantly Black and Latino neighborhoods, making the connection between state coercion and racial group membership difficult to ignore (Nuamah and Ogorzalek 2021). Visible links between how the police behave and where Black and Latino people live may lead members of these groups who would otherwise have little reason to expect coercive police contact to see themselves as potential targets. For those who identify with their racial or ethnic group and perceive that group as being unfairly targeted, this combination of threat and group salience can reframe individual encounters with the state as collective experiences, providing both the motivation and the basis for political action (Garcia-Rios et al. 2023). To the extent that this process is driven by the anticipation of coercive contact, or the perceived unfairness of punitive rules targeting one's neighborhood, these mobilizing dynamics may shape the behavior of those who have not borne the material and social costs of being stopped or arrested. In short, place-based criminalization may create a constituency that perceives itself as under threat, views that threat as unjust, and retains the capacity to organize against it.

Existing scholarship would lead us to expect this type of backlash to primarily manifest outside the ballot box. Walker (2020) finds that criminal justice contact increases non-electoral participation, but not voting, consistent with Lerman and Weaver (2020)'s argument that the distrust of government associated with policing extends to doubts about the efficacy of elections. Yet scholars of racial and ethnic politics find that these non-electoral forms of community engagement can serve as pathways to formal political participation by fostering civic skills, a sense of efficacy, and attachment to a broader political community (Bedolla 2005; Zepeda-Millán 2016). Meta-analytic evidence also finds only a weak to moderate relationship between political trust and voter turnout (Devine 2024). Together, these findings suggest that non-electoral mobilization against aggressive policing may facilitate, rather than replace, electoral mobilization, even in communities with deep-seated distrust of the state. This pattern may also be specific to the individual-level encounters with the criminal justice system that have dominated empirical work on policing and political behavior. Stops and arrests can be deeply stigmatizing, cutting people off from the community networks and norms that facilitate electoral participation (Burch 2013), and those who do mobilize in the wake of these experiences may be drawn to forms of action that are more accessible to the socially marginalized (Walker 2020). Place-based criminalization may generate different dynamics. Shared encounters with punitive policies may generate participatory norms and a sense of common cause that facilitate electoral as well as non-electoral engagement (Anoll 2018; Bedolla 2005). Whether mobilization reaches the ballot box may also depend on features of the policies themselves. The growth of aggressive policing in the United States has resulted from decades of overlapping legislative and administrative choices that often leave organizers without a clear target at the ballot box. Electoral mobilization against place-based criminalization may be more likely when police practices can be tied to a specific, contestable policy choice or a public official who could be removed. Under these conditions, organizers have stronger reasons to turn to electoral strategies (e.g. recruiting candidates, staging registration drives, and tying the policy to particular incumbents or party labels) because elections offer regular, high-visibility opportunities to punish or replace the officials associated with the policy and to place its reversal squarely on the public agenda. These efforts to change policy can also build civic skills, develop norms of participation, and connect people to the electoral process in ways that may encourage voting for expressive as well as instrumental reasons, and that persist beyond the elections in which the policy is directly contested.

Empirical work on policing and political behavior has focused largely on the effects of individual encounters with the criminal justice system rather than on the legal and policy regimes that structure those encounters. Even where scholars have examined the community-level effects of policing, the available measures typically capture geographic concentrations of stops and arrests. But the legal tools that underwrite place-based criminalization do more than generate police encounters; they create crimes that would not otherwise exist and diminish the "rights-bearing capacity" of those living in the places they target (Beckett and Herbert 2009). To the extent that these policies shape how people experience and respond to the state, studying the effects of police contact alone may miss a significant dimension of how policing shapes political life. Gang injunctions provide a rare opportunity to study the political consequences of place-based criminalization directly. By restricting how people could move through and use public space, and lowering the threshold for police stops within certain neighborhoods, these injunctions established a distinctly more aggressive and invasive policing regime within their boundaries. Below, I present evidence that this legal shift increased both the rate of involuntary police encounters and the risk of coercive contact for people living in these areas.

Background and Case

As part of the broader national embrace of aggressive, "law and order" policing in the 1980s and 1990s, local governments in California pioneered the use of the civil court system as a tool to crack down on criminal street gangs. By suing gangs and having them declared a public nuisance, municipalities were able to secure civil restraining orders that permitted them to impose sweeping restrictions on the movement and behavior of gang members in specific locations where the enjoined gang had engaged in nuisance activity.[1] These restraining orders, known as gang injunctions, were designed to "banish gang members from the public streets," (Werdegar 1999, 411) by criminalizing a variety of everyday behaviors such as using a cellphone, gathering in groups of more than two, riding a bike, or wearing certain clothing (Muñiz 2015; O'Deane 2011; Werdegar 1999), while increasing penalties for breaking existing laws with automatic fines and jail time. Gang injunctions quickly proliferated after the Supreme Court of California upheld the legality of the tactic in the 1997 case *People ex rel. Gallo v. Acuna*—by 2010 there were at least 150 active injunctions in California (O'Deane 2011), nearly one third of which were in the City of Los Angeles.

While specifically targeted at gangs and gang members, two factors suggest that these harsh tactics impacted all residents of the targeted safety zones. First, injunctions decreased legal constraints on officer behavior by lowering the standard of suspicion needed to detain someone. This allowed officers to stop

1. This ranged from "quality of life" issues, such as vandalism and loud music, to more serious crimes like open drug-dealing and drive-by shootings (Harward 2014).

and search anyone who ignored questions or walked away from an interaction, even if there was no other indication that the individual had violated the law (Boga 1994; Owens, Mioduszewski, and Bates 2020). There are strong reasons to suspect that this would have increased the rate of involuntary police-citizen interactions, given previous scholarship finding that patterns of stops and arrests are highly responsive to legal oversight (Prendergast 2021), and institutional directives (Mummolo 2018).[2] This was a possibility recognized at the time, with one Los Angeles city prosecutor lamenting that within the LAPD, injunctions were often seen as a way to, "give cops the chance to stop anybody for any reason" (Muñiz 2015, 53).

Second, because these cases were brought against gangs as legal entities (Harward 2014), the police were able to enforce the terms of the injunction on anyone later identified as a member of the enjoined gang, even if they were not originally named as a defendant. Critics have argued that the criteria for identifying gang members at the time were so subjective and broad that they could be applied to "[v]irtually every young African American or Latino male living in a neighborhood where gangs [were] active" (Werdegar 1999, 423), raising serious concerns about racial profiling (Muñiz 2015) and violations of due process rights (Werdegar 1999).[3] Moreover, it was often extremely difficult for individuals to determine if they had been identified as a gang member by the State of California (Owens, Mioduszewski, and Bates 2020) or to remove themselves from gang databases,[4] suggesting that anyone whose social networks included gang members, or who "fit the profile" could reasonably expect to be affected by the injunction restrictions. Taken together, these features meant that injunctions operated less as narrow orders against a few named defendants and more as neighborhood-wide expansions of the legal grounds for police stops.

While this policy was facially neutral, the extreme racial skew in individuals listed in police gang databases meant that this increased risk of police coercion almost exclusively impacted Black and Latino people.[5] This racial disparity can be seen in arrest patterns from the time—incident-level data from the LAPD show that between 2010 and 2019, arrest rates for Blacks and Latinos were consistently higher within the safety zones than in the surrounding neighborhoods. These differences do not appear for other racial groups and persisted until most injunction enforcement ceased in 2016 (Appendix Figure D.2). Residents' perceptions appear to have tracked these enforcement patterns: qualitative studies find that the injunctions were widely seen as

2. To have an effect on officer behavior, the police had to be aware of the existence, terms, and targets of a given injunction and willing to enforce them. Throughout the 2000s, city, county, and state entities in California regularly held workshops to ensure that officers were aware of existing injunctions and procedures, and to encourage aggressive enforcement (O'Deane 2011). A small survey of police officers conducted by O'Deane (2011) suggests that awareness of injunctions among gang units was high and that most officers felt that enforcing them was a good use of their time and resources.

3. These criteria included living within a gang's territory and adopting "their style of dress, uses of hand signs, symbols, or tattoos" (Kim 1995, 270). The use of these vague criteria was limited in 2007 by stricter documentation requirements.

4. Prior to 2007, no person added to a gang list in Los Angeles had been removed, likely due to a requirement that the person publicly renounce membership in the gang, which could generate retaliation (O'Deane 2011, 400). Even after reforms were made to this process, removal was extremely rare.

5. A 1992 report by the L.A. County District Attorney found that 47% of Black men between the ages of 21 and 24 residing in L.A. County were listed in police gang databases. As of 2012, the statewide CalGang database included over 10% of L.A. County's Black residents in that age group, though the number was likely far higher for Black men ($\approx$ 95% of individuals in CalGang are men). This can be compared to 3.5% of Latinos and 0.3% of Whites in that age range (Muñiz and McGill 2012).

unfair and racially targeted (Barajas 2007; Muñiz 2015; Scott 2023), and survey data indicate that safety zone residents were roughly seven times more likely to report unfair police treatment than otherwise similar individuals in areas later covered by an injunction, after accounting for demographic and neighborhood characteristics (Appendix Table H.8).

For many people living in the safety zones, the injunctions meant that everyday activities could attract police scrutiny in ways they would not have elsewhere. As one resident of an injunction zone described, "[e]veryone in the community gets pulled over. Every time I go to the store or pick my daughters from school, police harass me" (Muñiz 2015, 91). Community knowledge of the injunctions was high, driven by media coverage, public debate, observed changes in police behavior, and accounts of those targeted, who shared their experiences with families and wider social networks (O'Deane 2011; Muñiz 2015), giving the policy a visibility and traceability that routine discretionary enforcement often lacks. In some places, gang injunctions were met with substantial opposition, with youth-led activist groups organizing protests, attending community meetings, and staging voter registration drives (Barajas 2007; Muñiz 2015; Scott 2023). Existing scholarship tells us that the surplus stops and arrests generated by this policy likely had substantial political consequences for those named as gang members (Ben-Menachem and Morris 2023; Lerman and Weaver 2020). The empirical literature has less to say about the political consequences of this form of criminalization on people living in the injunction zones who were never stopped or arrested, but who had reason to fear they could be. The broad and subjective criteria used to label individuals as gang members, and the near-impossibility of being removed from police databases, made this a credible risk in these communities. This paper investigates whether the backlash captured in ethnographic work reached the ballot box, and whether it extended to those most likely to be treated as suspects because of their race, age, and neighborhood.

Empirical Approach

To estimate the effect of gang injunctions on electoral participation, I combine geocoded administrative data on voting and registration with original data on the timing and location of each injunction. Census block-level counts of the number of registered voters and votes cast in each general election between 1992 (2002 for votes) and 2020 come from the California Statewide Database.[6] These counts—which are based on geocoded, election-day voter file extracts and voter history data—provide an accurate election-day measure of electoral

6. The Statewide Database is California's official redistricting database. Between 1992 and 2000 registration data is only reported for 2000 Census blocks, and between 2012 and 2020, voting and registration data is only reported for 2020 Census blocks. I convert these data to the 2010 Census block-level using the official Block Relationship Files provided by the U.S. Census Bureau. See Appendix Tables E.1 and E.2 for robustness checks on these block conversions.

participation broken down by age, gender, partisan affiliation, and ethnicity using surname matching.[7]

Data on the location and timing of the 50 gang injunctions imposed in the City of Los Angeles between 1993 and 2013 come from court documents made available by the Los Angeles City Attorney's Gang Unit. These documents include the date of the initial complaint, the gangs named in the case, the list of prohibited activities, the date the permanent injunction was granted, and the boundaries of the safety zone, which I digitized and mapped onto Census blocks using GIS software (see Appendix Table D.1 for a full list of injunctions). I supplemented this with additional information on legal proceedings and enforcement actions gathered from City Attorney press releases, local news stories, government reports, county court records, and several empirical studies of gang injunctions and crime (Grogger 2002; Los Angeles County Civil Grand Jury 2004; O'Deane 2011; Ridgeway et al. 2019).[8]

I employ a stacked difference-in-difference design, comparing changes in registrations and voting in Census blocks placed under injunctions to changes in untreated blocks in the same neighborhood. To avoid invalid comparisons that can arise in difference-in-difference models with multiple time periods, and to ensure that my results are robust to treatment effect heterogeneity across place and time (Goodman-Bacon 2021; Imai and Kim 2019), I stack my block-level panel data by treatment timing cohort. Because outcomes are measured at each election, cohorts are defined by the election that blocks were first placed under an injunction order.[9] Each treatment cohort includes all Census blocks treated in the same election period (e.g. all blocks treated between the 2002 and 2004 general election), as well as the full set of never-treated blocks used as controls. Thus, blocks used as controls can appear in multiple cohorts but treated blocks will only appear in one. Using this stacked, block-level data on registrations and voting I estimate the following two-way fixed effects model:

$$ln(y+1)_{b,e,g} = \beta INJUNCTION_{b,e,g} + \beta \mathbf{X}_{b,e,g} + \gamma_{b,g} + \gamma_{t,e,g} + \epsilon_{b,e,g} \tag{1}$$

Where $y_{b,e,g}$ is either the log-transformed number of votes cast or voters registered in Census block b, election e and treatment timing cohort g and $\beta INJUNCTION_{b,e,g}$ is an indicator for whether or not a given block is covered by a gang injunction in that year.[10] To account for spatial spillovers, I include a set of indicators capturing distance to the nearest active injunction boundary in the set of time-varying,

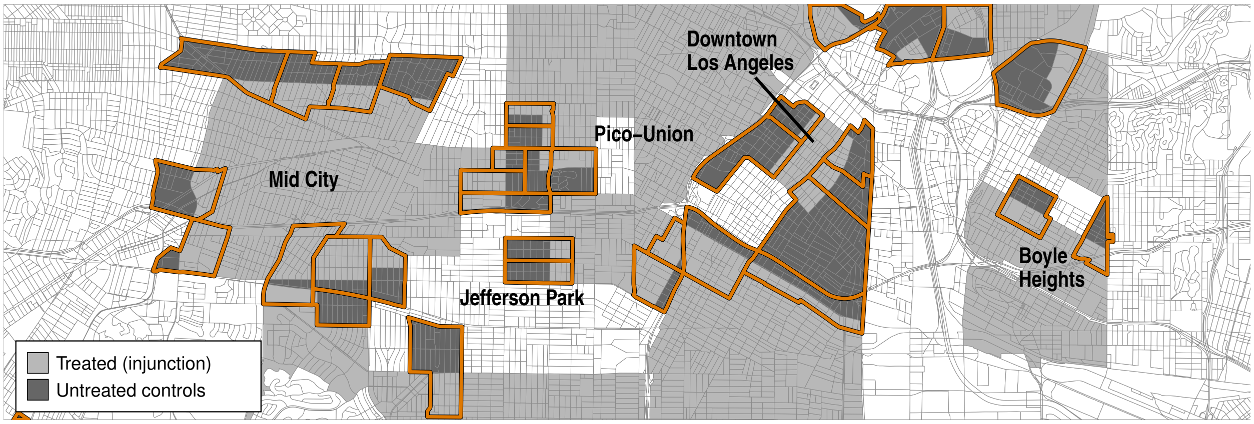
7. The Statewide Database uses the U.S. Census Bureau's Passel-Word dictionary for Hispanic surnames and the Lauderdale and Kestenbaum (2000) dictionary for Asian surnames.

8. Three local newspapers were searched for articles on gang injunctions: The Los Angeles Times, The Los Angeles Daily News, and La Opinión.

9. I consider "treatment" to begin when a preliminary injunction was obtained by the city, which is typically requested when the initial case is filed and allows the city to enforce the injunction restrictions as the lawsuit is pending (O'Deane 2011). I use the date of the permanent order if a preliminary injunction was not requested or granted. In cases where blocks were covered by multiple injunctions, I consider treatment to begin with the first.

10. In Appendix Table E.3, I show that my results are substantively similar when using an inverse hyperbolic sine transformation, as well as the untransformed count of registrations and votes.

Figure 1: **Visualization of Main Identification Strategy**



Note: Map of the maximum extent of civil gang injunctions in Central Los Angeles. Census tracts with identifying variation are outlined in orange. The within-neighborhoods design compares changes in registrations and votes cast in treated Census blocks (light gray) to changes in registrations and votes cast in untreated Census blocks (dark gray) that are in the same tract.

block-level controls ($\mathbf{X}_{b,e,g}$). Given the stacked estimation strategy, block-by-treatment cohort fixed effects ($\gamma_{b,g}$) control for time-invariant characteristics of Census blocks that might shape turnout and registration rates, while election-by-Census-tract-by-treatment cohort fixed effects ($\gamma_{t,e,g}$, where t denotes the Census tract containing block b) control for common shocks to voting and registration in a given election year.

Intuitively, this approach recovers the effect of injunction policies on electoral participation by comparing within-Census block changes in registrations and voting in blocks that are under an injunction order to within-block changes in behavior among untreated blocks that are in the same Census tract. Figure 1 visualizes this identification strategy, displaying Census blocks covered by gang injunctions in Central Los Angeles (light gray), alongside the untreated Census blocks used as controls (dark gray).[11] Because the injunctions changed the underlying rules governing police encounters within the safety zones, this variation captures exposure to the *risk* created by the policy (i.e. the likelihood and potential severity of police encounters), not necessarily realized contact with police.[12]

The central identifying assumption underlying my approach is that in the absence of the injunction, treated blocks would have followed the same trends in electoral participation as untreated blocks in the same tract. I test the plausibility of this assumption by estimating a dynamic effects version of Equation 1 with leads and lags of treatment. The results, presented in Appendix Figure E.2, provide empirical support for the parallel trends assumption, with small and statistically insignificant pre-trends. Because this form of

11. This subset of treated and control Census blocks is used for illustrative purposes. For a full map of gang injunctions in Los Angeles, see Appendix Figure D.1.

12. I thank an anonymous reviewer for highlighting this distinction.

pre-testing can be underpowered (Freyaldenhoven, Hansen, and Shapiro 2019), I demonstrate below that my results hold with the use of synthetic controls to ensure parallel trends in the pre-treatment period, as well as with a semi-parametric, propensity-score weighted estimator that relaxes the parallel trends assumption to hold after conditioning on a set of observed pre-treatment covariates.

In addition to these empirical checks, I note that the legal process by which specific blocks were selected for inclusion in a safety zone does not appear to have been related to potential time-variant drivers of turnout. In Los Angeles, injunctions were implemented via a standardized, top-down process with limited community involvement (Maxson, Hennigan, and Sloane 2003; Muñiz 2015). City prosecutors would identify neighborhoods where gangs were suspected to have claimed territory (Werdegar 1999), and then work with local police and gang informants to identify individual gang members and catalog any illegal or disruptive activity they were engaged in (Maxson, Hennigan, and Sloane 2003; Allan 2004). While the officers documenting gang activity would often seek the testimony of community members, participation in this process was low due to distrust of the police and city government and fear of retaliation by gangs (Allan 2004; Grogger 2002; Miranda 2007). After collecting this evidence, prosecutors would file a public nuisance lawsuit in civil court seeking a preliminary injunction against the gang and its members, and propose the specific target area where the restrictions would be applied. Prosecutors were required to demonstrate that this proposed "safety zone" was the minimal area needed to address the nuisance posed by the gang. Because of a concern that gang members might try to circumvent the injunction restrictions, these areas nearly always extended beyond the gang's suspected turf to follow major roads and other recognizable landmarks (O'Deane 2011).[13] Taken together, the length and top-down nature of this process, the narrow focus on the activities of the targeted gang, and the manner in which the boundaries were drawn suggest that the injunction zones were not the product of community-led public safety campaigns or short-term crime waves, nor can they be considered simple proxies for gang territory or the overall crime rate.

An important ancillary assumption behind this design is that spillover effects were "local" and that the distance indicators included in Equation 1 capture all nearby blocks subject to spillovers (Butts 2021). While residence is unlikely to be the sole determinant of exposure to the treatment, the design and enforcement of the injunctions suggest its effects would have been concentrated among those living within and near the targeted areas. Most gangs in Los Angeles are rooted deeply in the neighborhoods where they originated, with their members in many ways viewing gang and neighborhood identities as indistinguishable from one another (Vigil 2007). Given this, it is often assumed that gang members live in the territory claimed by their gang, and officers appear to have relied on this assumption when adding individuals to police gang databases (Kim 1995, 270). This means the injunction zones were effectively centered on the places suspected members

13. This was also done to make the injunction zones easier for officers to identify and enforce.

lived and would have exposed the residents of these areas to far higher levels of risk than those simply passing through the area.

In Appendix Table E.4, I estimate spillover effects at varying distances to the injunction boundary and find evidence of positive spillover effects that diminish with distance, consistent with mobilization diffusing outward from the treated blocks. This means that failing to account for spatial spillovers would lead to overly conservative estimates, as mobilization in blocks just outside the injunction boundary would attenuate the estimated treatment effect toward zero.[14]

Effects on Voting and Registrations

Table 1 gives the main results.[15] Because the outcome is log-transformed, exponentiated coefficients can be interpreted as the percent change in voting and registrations between blocks put under an injunction and the control group. I find that injunctions had a large mobilizing effect on the communities in which they were implemented. Estimates from the main specification (Models 1 and 5) suggest that being placed under an injunction led to a 6% increase in votes cast in a given block, and an 11% increase in the number of registrations.[16] This is similar in magnitude to the 11% increase in registered voters seen in Los Angeles in the two elections following the introduction of automatic voter registration in 2015 from the two elections prior, which corresponded to an average of ≈ 6.5 additional registrations per Census block.

This result is robust to a variety of alternate specifications. In Models 2 and 6 I include year fixed effects interacted with voting age population deciles from the 2000 Census to account for possible confounds that vary with block-level population, such as differential population growth. In Models 3 and 7 I include year fixed effects interacted with quartiles of the Black and Latino share of the population in 2000. This accounts for the possibility that blocks with high proportions of these groups may have been more likely to be selected into injunction safety zones and may have displayed differential trends in voting participation. Finally, in Models 4 and 8, I include the full, unbalanced panel. Across all specifications the coefficients are substantively similar, consistent with a significant increase in registrations and voting.

As noted above, I examine the robustness of these findings using several alternate estimation strategies. First, I employ a synthetic difference-in-difference estimator (Arkhangelsky et al. 2021), fitting separate

14. These positive spillover results are also consistent with existing scholarship finding no evidence that injunctions displaced gang or criminal activity to surrounding areas (Grogger 2002; Ridgeway et al. 2019). Using detailed police intelligence data from the LAPD on the movements of suspected gang members, Valasik (2014) finds that while injunctions led suspected gang members to spend less time in public, particularly in large groups, they did not "displace the loitering of enjoined gang members outside of their gang's claimed turf or even outside of the [injunction] safety zone" (98).

15. These models include the full set of blocks with voting and registration information. Dropping Census tracts without identifying variation does not meaningfully alter the standard errors.

16. The larger effect on registrations than on votes cast may in part be due to the fact that the Statewide Database only covers on-cycle elections. If residents were mobilizing against the injunction specifically, I would expect larger effects in LA's off-cycle municipal elections, where many of the officials responsible for pursuing this policy would have been on the ballot.

Table 1: **Effect of Gang Injunctions on Electoral Participation**

	Registrations				Votes Cast			
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)	(7)	(8)
Injunction	0.106***	0.101***	0.082***	0.087***	0.057*	0.049*	0.046*	0.064**
	(0.019)	(0.019)	(0.020)	(0.020)	(0.022)	(0.022)	(0.022)	(0.024)
Census block FE's	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Year-by-Census tract FE's	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Pop.-by-Year FE's		✓				✓		
Race Comp.-by-Year FE's			✓				✓	
Proximity controls	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Unbalanced panel				✓				✓
Pretreatment Mean	61.6	61.6	61.6	59.3	32.4	32.4	32.4	31.4
N. Observations	1633170	1633170	1633170	1826381	867290	867290	867290	964886
N. Blocks	20895	20895	20895	24755	19679	19679	19679	23100
Adj. R^2	0.917	0.918	0.918	0.924	0.904	0.905	0.904	0.917
R^2 (within)	0.00	0.00	0.00	0.00	0.00	0.00	0.00	0.00

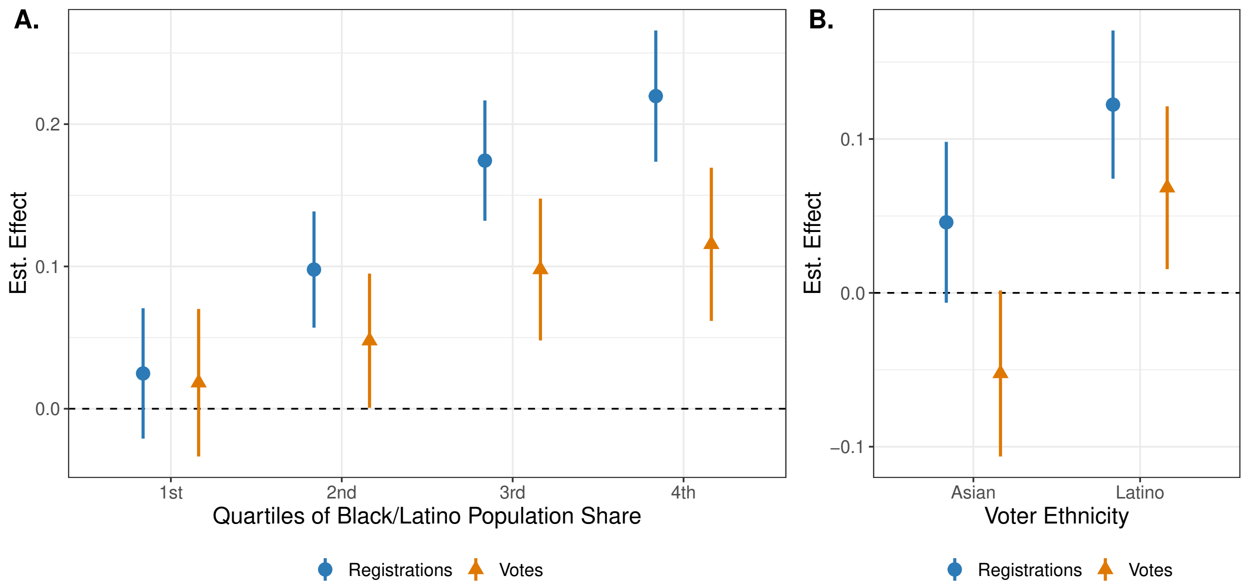
Note: OLS estimates. Models 1 and 5 present the main specifications for registrations and votes, respectively. Models 2 and 6 include deciles of the 2000 population-by-year fixed effects. Models 3 and 7 include quartiles of Black and Latino share of the 2000 population-by-year fixed effects. Models 4 and 8 expand the sample to the full, unbalanced panel. Robust standard errors clustered by Census block given in parentheses. Full results presented in Appendix Tables E.1 and E.2. $^{***}p < 0.001$; $^{**}p < 0.01$; $^{*}p < 0.05$.

models for each treatment timing cohort.[17] In addition to Census block and year fixed effects, the synthetic DID method applies unit weights to ensure that pre-treatment trends in the outcome are parallel between treated and untreated units, as well as time weights that balance outcomes in the pre- and post-treatment periods for the control group. This improves the plausibility of the difference-in-difference design by eliminating pre-trends and placing more weight on pre-treatment elections in which electoral participation in the control blocks is similar to its post-injunction values. Taking the weighted average effects for each treatment timing cohort recovers estimates that are nearly identical to my main results (Appendix Table E.8), while the disaggregated effects suggest that the earliest injunctions generated the largest mobilization effects. In Appendix Figure E.4, I present event study estimates using a doubly robust, propensity-score weighting estimator (Callaway and Sant'Anna 2021; Sant'Anna and Zhao 2020), which allows me to relax the parallel trends assumption to hold conditional on voting age population and racial composition (i.e. percent Black and Latino). I again find positive and statistically significant effects. Importantly, these effects on registrations and voting appear to be long-lasting, extending over a decade after the injunctions were first put in place.

Finally, I estimate a specification that drops the use of Census tracts entirely, instead comparing blocks

17. Because this model does not include Census tract fixed effects, I restrict the sample to Census tracts that contain at least one treated block to ensure that control and treated blocks are drawn from similar neighborhoods.

Figure 2: **Heterogeneous Effects**



Note: Difference-in-difference estimates with 95% confidence intervals of the effect of civil gang injunctions on block-level registrations and votes. Panel A presents the marginal effect estimates from interacting the post-treatment dummy in Equation 1 with quartiles of block-level Black and Latino population share in 2000. Panel B presents separate effect estimates for Asian and Latino voters. Full model results in Appendix Tables E.5 and E.6. Robust standard errors are clustered by Census block.

covered by each injunction to a set of untreated controls defined purely by their distance to the injunction boundary. I estimate this using two ring definitions for the control group: 500m to 1500m, and 1000m to 2000m from each injunction's safety zone, which excludes nearby blocks likely to be affected by spillovers. The estimates, presented in Appendix Table E.9, are very similar to my original results across both distance thresholds, suggesting that the findings are not driven by the particular set of Census tracts used in the main analysis.

I next test for heterogeneous effects. If this mobilization reflects backlash to racially targeted enforcement, the effects should be largest in neighborhoods with the highest concentrations of Black and Latino residents—the groups most likely to be subjected to injunction-related policing. To examine this I leverage the racial composition of Census blocks, reestimating Equation 1 on block-level registrations and votes, interacting the post-treatment dummy with quartiles of the Black and Latino share of the population in 2000. As shown in Panel A of Figure 2, I find that the magnitude of the effect varies substantially with racial composition—increases in registrations and votes are largest in Census blocks with high percentages of Black and Latino residents. While the small size and relative racial homogeneity of Census blocks strongly suggests that Black and Latino residents of these blocks are responsible for these increases, in Panel B I corroborate these findings by taking advantage of counts of registrations and votes by ethnicity provided by the Statewide Database, estimating Equation 1 separately for Latino and Asian registrations and votes. Gang injunctions led to large increases in Latino electoral participation, with an estimated 13% increase in registrations and 7% in votes cast. In contrast, the estimated effects on Asian participation are far smaller and statistically indistinguishable from zero—in the case of voting the point estimates are actually negative.

Effects on Non-electoral Participation

The results above indicate that gang injunctions led to a large and durable increase in electoral participation. Here, I leverage individual-level panel data to examine whether this policy also increased non-electoral civic engagement. This analysis has several benefits. First, it allows me to assess observable implications of my theory of place-based criminalization. Non-electoral participation is often one of the first ways people respond to perceived injustices from the police (Walker 2020). Thus, if injunctions mobilized residents by generating grievances about policing and state surveillance, I would expect to see corresponding increased civic involvement beyond the ballot box. Moreover, because these grievances may arise from expectations about who is likely to be stopped as well as direct encounters with police, I would expect this mobilization to be concentrated among those at greatest risk of being profiled as gang members—particularly young Black and Latino people, even if they have not experienced direct police contact. Second, panel data allows me to test for within-individual changes in civic engagement, lending plausibility to the claim that the aggregate electoral effects I identify do not merely reflect compositional turnover (a possibility I examine more directly below.)

To measure non-electoral political participation I rely on Waves I (2000-2001) and II (2007-2008) of the Los Angeles Family and Neighborhood Survey (L.A.FANS), mapped to respondents' Census block of residence using restricted-access files. L.A.FANS used a stratified sampling design that oversampled poor neighborhoods, ensuring adequate representation of the low-income, predominantly Black and Latino populations most likely to be affected by gang injunctions. These are populations that large-scale national surveys often undersample, limiting the ability of existing research on criminal justice contact to speak to the experiences of the most marginalized communities. The survey includes a battery of questions related to community and civic involvement in the past 12 months, including participation in a (1) neighborhood or block organization meeting, (2) business or civic group, (3) nationality or ethnic pride club, or (4) local or state political organization, as well as volunteering in a (5) local organization. These responses were used to create a non-electoral civic participation scale ranging from 0 to 5 (Mean = 0.45, st. dev. = 0.88). While this differs from many traditional political participation batteries, this measure aligns with common definitions of non-electoral politics in the race and ethnic politics literature as "any community or collectively oriented activity" (Bedolla 2005, 137). Even if not expressly political, community involvement and volunteerism are thought to be key ways in which members of racialized, historically disenfranchised groups mobilize to address collective problems, and can facilitate engagement in formal politics by fostering a sense of efficacy and group attachment (Bedolla 2005).

Given that survey responses were only recorded at two points in time, I use a standard two-way fixed effects approach rather than the stacked specification in Equation 1. Specifically I estimate the following difference-in-difference model:

$$y_{i,w} = \beta INJUNCTION_{i,w} + \gamma_i + \gamma_w + \epsilon_{i,w} \tag{2}$$

Where $y_{i,w}$ is an indicator for whether or not survey respondent i reported some form of non-electoral community involvement in survey wave w, and $\beta INJUNCTION_{i,w}$ is an indicator for whether an individual's Census block of residence is within an active injunction safety zone. To improve the plausibility of the parallel trends assumption, I restrict the sample to individuals residing in Census tracts that were either partially or fully covered by an injunction between the two survey waves. In a second set of models, I use covariate-balanced propensity score (CBPS) weights (Imai and Ratkovic 2014) on the entire sample to obtain balance in observed characteristics likely to be correlated with both treatment assignment and changes in non-electoral participation over time (see Appendix Table H.1 for the full list of variables and balance statistics).

Table 2 gives the main results. Based on the estimates from Model 1, I find that individuals living in a Census block placed under a gang injunction order became significantly more likely to report civic involvement in their communities. I find similar results using CBPS weights in Model 2, which are consistent with a roughly 15 percentage point increase in the linear probability of reporting non-electoral forms of community involvement. These results are robust to modeling participation as a count, as well as the inclusion of tract-by-wave fixed effects (Appendix Tables H.4 and H.2). As a final check, in the Appendix (Table H.7) I present the results of a placebo test, examining the effect of *future* injunctions (i.e. those that were put in place between 2008 and 2014) on civic participation. Using the same specification as Model 1, I find negative, statistically insignificant pre-trends for this group. To the extent that later-treated individuals are similar to those placed under injunction zones earlier in time, this supports the claim that my estimates are not being upwardly biased by unobserved, time-variant confounders.

Disaggregating the participation index by type of activity (Appendix Table H.5), I find this increase is driven by participation in local political organizations and neighborhood or block organization meetings,

Table 2: **Effect of Gang Injunctions: Panel Survey Evidence**

	Non-electoral Participation		Crime Victimization		Neighborhood Safety	
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)
Injunction	0.255**	0.152*	−0.080	−0.074	−0.219	−0.037
	(0.071)	(0.068)	(0.064)	(0.053)	(0.171)	(0.164)
Ind. FE's	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Survey Wave FE's	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
CBPS Weights		✓		✓		✓
Full sample		✓		✓		✓
N. Observations	408	2352	408	2354	406	2335
N. Individuals	207	1180	207	1180	207	1180
Adj. R^2	0.259	0.215	0.513	0.421	0.194	0.166
R^2 (within)	0.061	0.023	0.005	0.004	0.021	0.001

Note: Estimates from Equation 2 fit on binary indicators of self-reported, non-electoral civic participation, crime victimization, and rating one's neighborhood as "safe." Models 1, 3, and 5 restrict the sample to respondents living in treated Census tracts. Models 2, 4, and 6 are estimated using the entire sample and CBPS weights, which provide balance on demographic and neighborhood-level characteristics (see Appendix Table H.1 for full list of variables and balance statistics). All models include weights provided by L.A.FANS to account for attrition between survey waves. Robust standard errors clustered by household and Census tract given in parentheses. $^{***}p < 0.001$; $^{**}p < 0.01$; $^{*}p < 0.05$.

which have long served in Los Angeles as venues for voicing concerns about policing and public safety (Martinez 2016; Muñiz 2015). This pattern is consistent with an expressly political response to the injunctions, rather than a diffuse increase in community engagement.

I next examine whether effects are concentrated among respondents most plausibly exposed to injunction-related enforcement. Interacting the treatment indicator in Equation 2 with racial identification, I find that the mobilizing effects of gang injunctions on non-electoral participation are largest among respondents who identified as Black or Latino, as well as those under the age of 30 (Appendix Table H.3). Given that Black and Latino individuals make up approximately 90% of the survey sample in treated tracts, this age finding is primarily capturing the response of young people of color.

Finally, I examine whether mobilization extended beyond those who experienced direct police contact. The most direct test of this mechanism would be a formal mediation analysis testing whether discriminatory police encounters mediate the effect of injunctions on civic engagement. However, credible mediation would require, among other assumptions, no unmeasured confounding of the mediator–outcome relationship conditional on treatment, which is unlikely to hold in this setting.[18] As a more limited probe, I estimate Equation 2 with an interaction between the treatment indicator and an indicator for whether the respondent

18. Individual-level characteristics including prior political awareness, social network composition, and use of public spaces almost certainly affect both the propensity for civic engagement, as well as the likelihood of experiencing and reporting police discrimination.

reported being unfairly stopped, searched, questioned, physically threatened, or verbally abused by the police in the five years prior to Wave II of the survey. The interaction is positive but statistically insignificant ($\hat{\beta} = 0.15$, $p > 0.10$), while the main effect of the treatment remains positive and significant ($\hat{\beta} = 0.229$, $p < 0.01$), a pattern that holds in both the restricted and full samples (Appendix Table H.6). Together, this provides some suggestive evidence that the increase in civic engagement was not confined to respondents who reported discriminatory police encounters, consistent with mobilization driven in part by perceptions of unjust racial targeting or a heightened risk of coercive contact rather than direct contact alone.[19]

Effects on Attitudes

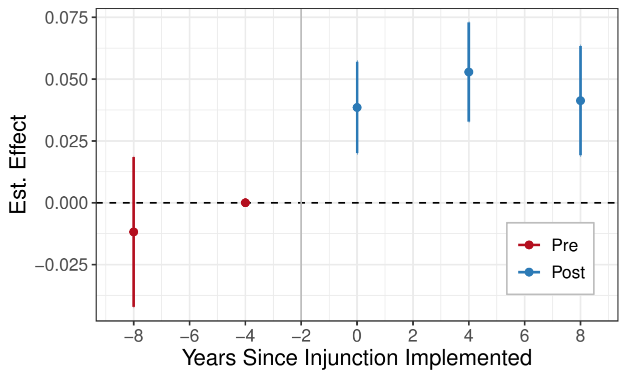
If the mobilization I document reflects backlash to punitive policing, I would expect it to be accompanied by shifts in attitudes toward criminal justice policy. Given this, I next test whether gang injunctions changed support for criminal justice reform. To measure attitudes about criminal justice policies I use Census block-level support for three statewide ballot initiatives—Proposition 66 in 2004, Proposition 5 in 2008, and Proposition 36 in 2012—that each sought to reduce penalties for nonviolent, low-level crimes.[20] I estimate the effect of gang injunctions on the share of support for these three initiatives using a dynamic version of the stacked difference-in-difference specification given in Equation 1 with leads and lags of treatment.

The results are presented in Figure 3. Within Census tracts, I fail to find significant pre-treatment differences between treated and untreated blocks in support for these initiatives. Given the short pre-treatment period, I provide further support for the parallel trends assumption with a series of placebo tests (Appendix Table F.1), showing that future treatment with an injunction does not predict within-neighborhood variation in support for the three ballot propositions. Following the implementation of a gang injunction, support for criminal justice reform increases significantly, by an average of 3.8% by the first post-injunction Presidential election, and 5.2% by the second. This represents a substantial shift in preferences ($\approx$ 10-15% of the pre-treatment mean). While I am unable to determine the extent to which these shifts are

19. Because police discrimination is measured post-treatment, this interaction should be interpreted with caution. One concern is that the main effect among non-reporters could overstate the role of anticipatory threat by including people who were mobilized by direct police contact but did not report it. For this to meaningfully bias the results, the injunctions would need to increase coercive encounters while simultaneously discouraging people from reporting unfair treatment on surveys—a pattern that seems unlikely. A more plausible dynamic is that injunctions increased both the propensity to describe police encounters as discriminatory and the propensity to report civic activity. This would bias the interaction upward and make the main effect among non-reporters, if anything, a conservative estimate of mobilization among those who did not personally experience police discrimination.

20. Both Propositions 66 and 36 aimed to limit California's three-strikes law to violent or serious felonies, and Proposition 5 aimed to reduce penalties for nonviolent drug offenses and to expand drug treatment programs. Census block-level vote tallies for each proposition come from the California Statewide Database and are based on precinct-level data mapped to Census geographies using ecological inference methods. See McCue (2011) for details. While these block-level estimates contain some degree of measurement error, these errors would only bias my difference-in-difference estimates if they are correlated with across-time trends in the treatment or control group within Census tracts. This seems implausible—an assumption bolstered by placebo tests, which find null effects of future injunctions on block-level election returns.

Figure 3: **Effects on Support for Criminal Justice Reforms**



Note: Dynamic difference-in-difference estimates with 95% confidence intervals of the effect of civil gang injunctions on block-level support for ballot propositions that decreased the severity of criminal punishments. Robust standard errors are clustered by Census block.

due to changes in individual preferences versus changes to the composition of the electorate, this finding is consistent with mobilization being driven by new voters who were particularly likely to oppose current law enforcement practices.

Alternative Mechanisms

Because gang injunctions are an inherently bundled treatment, I consider several alternative explanations for the effects I find. The goal of these analyses is not to isolate the precise share of mobilization attributable to any single mechanism, but to assess whether plausible alternatives can account for the magnitude and patterns of the results.

First, I consider the role of crime. Opposition to injunctions was not universal—the threat of violence and gang control of public spaces was a constant source of fear for many residents of the neighborhoods targeted by gang injunctions, with many community members calling on law enforcement and the city government to do more to address issues of gang violence and intimidation (Martinez 2016; Scott 2023). Previous scholarship finds that gang injunctions did lead to modest decreases in crime (Grogger 2002; Ridgeway et al. 2019), and while there is no evidence that injunctions decreased overall levels of gang-related violence, there is evidence that injunctions shifted some of this violence to less public places (Valasik 2014). Given this, it is possible that some of the mobilization effects I find are the result of people feeling safer and better served by law enforcement (Trelles and Carreras 2012).[21] Conversely, residents may have taken injunctions as a signal that crime and gang violence were on the rise and of particular concern in their neighborhood, mobilizing voters

21. While some individual survey evidence links crime victimization to increased political participation (e.g. Bateson 2012), I focus on the possibility that crime reduction is positively biasing my estimates.

concerned with perceived disorder in their community (Brown and Zoorob 2022).

However, the temporal pattern of mobilization I find is difficult to reconcile with an account centered on crime reduction. The existing evidence suggests that the effects of gang injunctions on crime and gang activity were short-lived (Grogger 2002; Ridgeway et al. 2019; Valasik 2014), while the mobilization I find grew over time and persisted up to a decade after the injunctions were first introduced. If reductions in crime or gang presence were driving increased participation, I would expect the mobilization effects to have followed a similar trajectory.

To further explore the potential role of crime, I assess whether the effect of gang injunctions is partially mediated by changes in the official crime rate. Using geocoded, incident-level crime data from 2010 to 2020, I estimate the controlled direct effect of the four, post-2009 injunctions net of crimes known to the police.[22] The results, presented in Appendix Table E.7, provide no evidence that voter mobilization is being mediated by changes in crime. Because police aggression may lead to crime under-reporting (Desmond, Papachristos, and Kirk 2016), and official crime rates may not reflect people's subjective experiences with crime, I next turn to the L.A.FANS survey, which asked respondents about property crime victimization and neighborhood safety (see Appendix Section C for exact question wording). Following my analysis of non-electoral participation, I estimate Equation 2 on indicators for whether respondents reported being the victim of a crime, and whether they rated their neighborhood as "Completely" or "Fairly" safe. Estimates for both outcomes, presented in Table 2, are small and statistically insignificant, indicating that the injunctions did not lead people to view their neighborhoods as safer. And while the coefficient for crime becomes significant with the inclusion of tract-by-wave fixed effects (Appendix Table H.2), this is a small effect, consistent with a 2.7% decrease in the linear probability of reporting property crime (weighted pretreatment mean = 47%). While I cannot rule out the possibility that a reduction in gang-related crimes contributed to some of the mobilization I document, I find no evidence of substantial changes in experiences with crime or perceptions of safety that could plausibly explain the magnitude of the effects I find.

Lastly, one could argue that the increases in registrations and votes I find may be due to selective mobility in response to the injunctions. For example, gang injunctions may have facilitated gentrification (Muñiz 2015), displacing poor residents with more affluent and politically active ones (Schlozman, Verba, and Brady 2013). Several factors suggest that compositional changes are unlikely to explain the electoral results. First, the "thinness" of the residential housing market imposes substantial limits on residential sorting within small geographic areas, such as Census tracts (Bayer, Ross, and Topa 2008). Second, previous work finds that gang injunctions in Southern California reduced both property values and the share of White in-movers (Owens,

22. The LAPD only reports crime data prior to 2010 at the Reporting District (RD) level—a geographic unit similar in size to Census tracts, drawn to include roughly equal populations.

Mioduszewski, and Bates 2020), which conflicts with documented patterns of gentrification in Los Angeles (Scott 2019).[23] Lastly, I find no evidence that gang injunctions led to population increases. Estimates from a difference-in-difference model with year-by-Census tract fixed effects comparing changes in population from 2000 to 2020 between treated and untreated blocks are negative and statistically insignificant (Appendix Table G.1). This indicates that if anything, the population of the safety zones slightly *decreased* relative to surrounding neighborhoods.[24]

Discussion and Conclusion

In many poor, racially segregated neighborhoods in the United States, law enforcement relies on aggressive, place-based tactics that criminalize everyday behavior and subject entire communities to heightened levels of police surveillance and coercion. While those personally stopped, arrested, or incarcerated as a result of these policies may become less likely to vote, I argue that racially disparate, geographically concentrated policing may generate a sense of collective threat capable of mobilizing the broader communities it targets. This paper provides evidence consistent with this argument. I find that gang injunctions—which expanded the criminal code, lowered the standard of suspicion for stops, and empowered officers to detain anyone who fit a broad and subjective profile—generated large and sustained increases in voter registration, turnout, and non-electoral civic engagement. Consistent with contemporaneous accounts of community resistance to these policies (Barajas 2007; Muñiz 2015; Scott 2023), I show that residents of injunction zones, particularly Black and Latino men, reported much higher levels of unfair treatment by the police, and that mobilization was strongest among Black, Latino, and young residents—the groups most plausibly exposed to injunction-related policing. Voters in treated neighborhoods also became more supportive of criminal justice reform. Together, these patterns suggest that it was not only realized contact with the police, but the policy-induced risk of being treated as a suspect, and the perception that this risk was racially targeted, that helped draw individuals into both electoral and non-electoral politics.

The persistence of these effects for more than a decade after the injunctions were first imposed suggests this was not simply a short-lived reaction to a new policy. Part of this longevity may be explained by the durability of the injunctions themselves, which were actively enforced long after they were first implemented (Appendix Figure D.3). Because individuals could be added to gang databases at any time on the basis

23. It is possible that this relative depreciation in home values mobilized concerned homeowners (Hall and Yoder 2022). While I cannot rule out this possibility, I find that much of the mobilizing effect is concentrated among young people (Appendix Table H.3), who are less likely to own a home. I also note that the period I study overlaps with a substantial appreciation in home values (Scott 2019). It is unclear how sensitive homeowners are to slower relative rates of price growth versus depreciation in the real value of their property.

24. I find a modest increase in White population share in treated blocks, but the effects on voting are concentrated in tracts that became less White over the study period, not more (Appendix Figure G.1).

of subjective criteria and had little recourse to contest their inclusion, the risk of being swept up into the injunction's restrictions would have been present for as long as the orders remained in force. Social processes within these neighborhoods may have played a role as well. I find evidence of increased participation in political organizations and neighborhood groups, which, along with habit formation, may have encouraged citizens to remain electorally engaged.

By shifting attention from individual police encounters to the legal regimes that govern how the state operates in specific neighborhoods (Beckett and Herbert 2009), this paper offers a new lens on the political consequences of aggressive policing and shows that these regimes can have substantial effects on political participation. Building on existing theories of injustice (Walker 2020), I argue that political mobilization can emerge *prospectively* from expectations about future state coercion, especially when the likelihood of contact is seen as unjustly tied to politically salient identities. The arguments I develop here about place-based criminalization could be applied to other interventions that pair geographically bounded legal restrictions with intensified policing, such as New York's Operation Impact program, which deployed large numbers of officers to designated "impact zones" for sustained periods, and Washington, D.C.'s drug-free zones, where signage explicitly marks areas of enhanced enforcement. Under these regimes, individuals' expectations about surveillance and sanctions in particular neighborhoods may reshape how they understand their vulnerability and their relationship to the state, with important implications for both electoral and non-electoral engagement.

One reason the injunctions may have been so politically mobilizing is that they failed to meaningfully reduce the crime and violence residents of these neighborhoods faced. Scott (2023) finds that organizers in Southern California struggled to mobilize opposition to injunctions in neighborhoods where residents viewed them as a potential remedy for crime and violence—a narrative that would have been harder to sustain in places where the injunctions failed to deliver on this promise. The backlash I document may have been driven in part by a perceived gap between intensive surveillance and the lack of meaningful improvements in safety. Strategies that produce visible improvements in public safety (e.g. Chalfin, LaForest, and Kaplan 2021) may generate very different political dynamics than those that impose the costs of enforcement without these benefits.

The results also raise questions about the mechanisms that link criminalization to electoral participation. Gang injunctions were an unusually traceable policy: pioneered by former Los Angeles mayor James Hahn during his tenure as city attorney and subsequently debated in successive mayoral and city attorney races, they gave voters a clear line of accountability between the policing they experienced and the officials who authorized it. In this context, the mobilization I document may have been primarily instrumental, driven by efforts to repeal the policy and sanction its supporters. If so, the turnout effects I estimate from general elections—where these officials did not appear on the ballot—may understate the full extent of electoral mobilization surrounding the injunctions. At the same time, scholars have documented electoral mobilization in response to both policing and other policy threats, even in the absence of a clear electoral target (Ang and Tebes 2024; Morris and Shoub 2024; Weiss, Siegel, and Romney 2023), indicating that expressive responses to aggressive policing can also draw people into electoral politics. My findings are therefore compatible with multiple mechanisms, and the distinction between instrumental and expressive reactions to place-based criminalization points to an interesting agenda for future research.

Of course, not everyone is likely to have responded to perceived police overreach by engaging in politics. If the mobilization I find was driven in part by the anticipatory threat these policies created, or by the perception that they unjustly criminalized Black and Latino communities, the injunctions may have simultaneously demobilized those who experienced the most harmful forms of police contact (such as an arrest or incarceration), while mobilizing the broader community around them—a possibility consistent with my finding that mobilization did not depend on personal experiences of police discrimination. Separately, there is evidence that the injunctions led people suspected of gang membership to reduce their visibility in public spaces (Valasik 2014), a pattern that may reflect the broader tendency toward state avoidance that scholars have documented in heavily policed communities (Weaver, Prowse, and Piston 2020). Whether those who adapted their behavior in this way also withdrew from political life, or whether avoidance of the police and political mobilization against the policy coexisted, is a question this paper cannot answer. Understanding how these different responses operate within communities subjected to place-based criminalization, and whose voices are ultimately represented in the political response these policies generate, remains an important topic for future research.

Considering the role of context, Los Angeles has a long history of racially biased, abusive, and scandal-plagued policing that has precipitated some of the nation's largest anti-police protests and led to the development of a dense network of organizations dedicated to resisting police abuse and mass criminalization in Black and Latino communities (Murch 2015; Bedolla 2005). Against this backdrop, residents may have been particularly likely to view injunction policies as unjust and to have access to outlets to translate those grievances into political action. In this respect, the conditions for mobilization against policing were relatively favorable in Los Angeles. But the conditions for translating those perceptions into sustained electoral participation were considerably less favorable. Many of the neighborhoods targeted by gang injunctions were marked by poverty, low educational attainment, high rates of non-citizenship, and deep institutional distrust cultivated by decades of adversarial policing. Beyond socioeconomic disadvantage, scholars of Latino politics in Los Angeles have found that electoral mobilization in these communities tends to be activated by specific legislative threats or the presence of co-ethnic candidates, and difficult to sustain otherwise (Barreto, Villarreal, and Woods 2005; Bedolla 2005). Strikingly, the effects I find were largest in the neighborhoods with the highest levels of poverty and crime, and the lowest levels of turnout (Appendix Figure E.3), suggesting that sustained electoral participation remains possible even under conditions adverse to political engagement.

Gang injunctions are a product of a punitive turn in American policing that has led to one of the highest incarceration rates in the world (National Academies of Sciences, Engineering, and Medicine 2018; Soss and Weaver 2017). What this paper documents is that residents of some of the poorest and most heavily policed neighborhoods in Los Angeles, subjected to more than a decade of aggressive police enforcement, responded not by withdrawing from formal politics but by registering and voting. This raises important questions about what this participation is able to achieve, and how local officials respond to the demands of politically marginalized communities. Answering these questions holds important implications for democratic accountability and the prospects of police reform.

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I thank Allison Anoll, Justin de Benedictis-Kessner, Nicole Yadon, Skyler Cranmer, and especially Vlad Kogan for their helpful comments and advice on this project. I also benefited from feedback from participants in the Ohio State University American Politics Workshop and the 2023 Justice and Injustice Conference.

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Biographical Statement

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Online Appendix

The Politics of Criminalized Places:
Aggressive Policing and Political Mobilization

Daniel Naftel

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B Data Availability and Sharing

The L.A.FANS data are distributed by the Data Sharing for Demographic Research (DSDR) project housed within the Inter-university Consortium for Political and Social Research (ICPSR). This analysis relies on the restricted-access Versions 2 and 2.5 of the L.A.FANS data, which include the Census tract and block of residence for each household in the sample. To protect respondent confidentiality and minimize the risk of the deductive disclosure of respondents' identities, this geographic information can only be accessed through a restricted data contract. Information on how to access the data is provided in the replication file. All analysis of the L.A.FANS data was performed within the ICPSR virtual data enclave, and output was reviewed for potential disclosure risk by ICPSR staff.

C Survey Question Wording

Crime Victimization: *"While you have lived in this neighborhood, have you or anyone in your household had anything stolen or damaged inside or outside your home, including your cars or vehicles parked on the street?"* Response Options: [Yes; No]
Neighborhood Safety: *"How safe is it to walk around alone in your neighborhood after dark? Is it:"* Response Options: [Completely safe; Fairly safe; Somewhat dangerous; Extremely dangerous]

D Gang Injunctions

Table D.1: **List of Injunctions**

Case	Complaint Filed	Preliminary Injunction	Permanent Injunction	End Date	Resumed As
Blythe Street Gang	02/22/1993	04/27/1993	02/17/2000		
18th Street Gang (Jefferson Park Injunction)	03/21/1997	07/11/1997	02/08/2005		
18th Street Gang (Pico-Union Injunction)	08/01/1997	08/29/1997	11/10/1998	10/22/1999	*Idem*
Mara Salvatrucha (MS-13)	03/04/1998	04/13/1998	*None*	09/18/2003	*Idem*
Shatto Park Locos and Columbia Lil Cycos	05/01/1998	06/30/1998	*None*	03/02/2001	10 Gang Injunction
Harpy's Gang	06/16/1998	08/04/1998	07/17/2000		
Langdon Street Gang	03/26/1999	05/20/1999	02/17/2000		
Culver City Boys	04/23/1999	06/03/1999	03/27/2001		
Venice Shoreline Crips	05/21/1999	07/21/1999	10/18/2000		
Harbor City Gang and Harbor City Crips	11/12/1999	01/12/2000	01/27/2000		
Venice 13	02/04/2000	03/17/2000	01/12/2001		
Pacoima Project Boys	03/20/2001	*None*	08/22/2001		

Continued on next page

Table D.1: **List of Injunctions** (Continued)

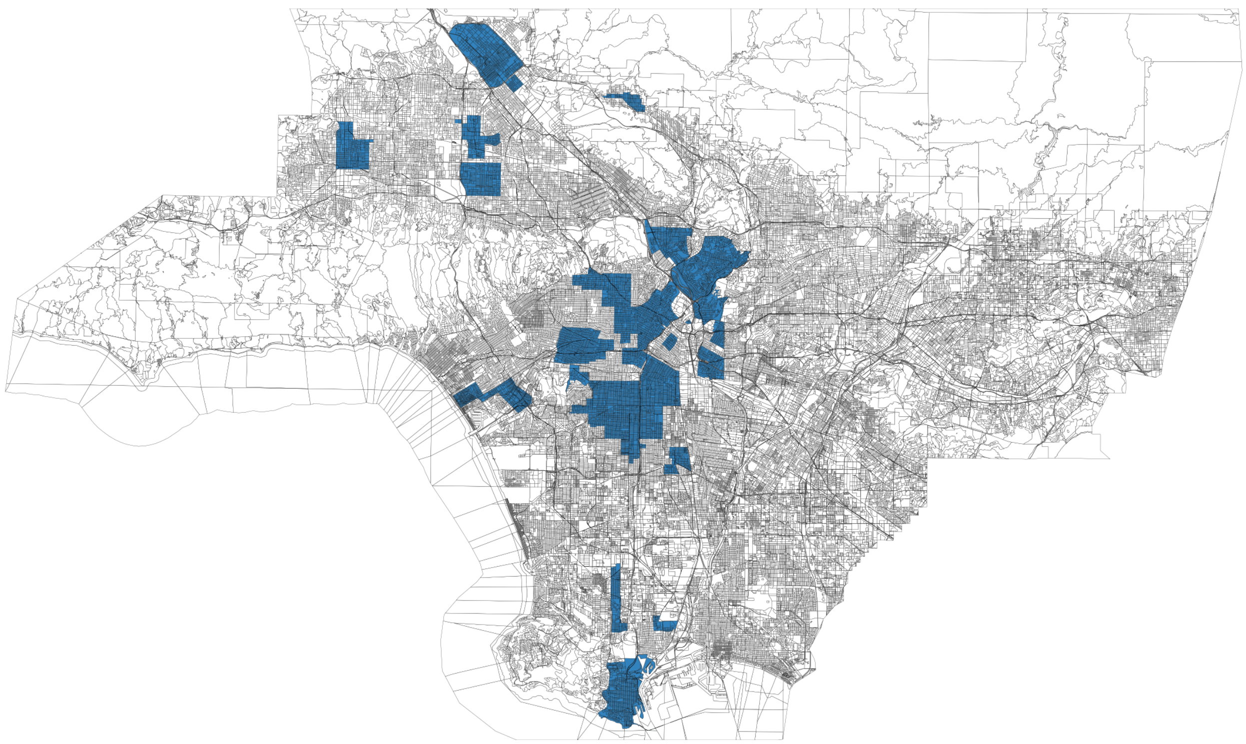
Case	Complaint Filed	Preliminary Injunction	Permanent Injunction	End Date	Resumed As
Eastside and Westside Wilmas Gangs	05/23/2001	*None*	03/09/2004		
Canoga Park Alabama	01/29/2002	02/25/2002	04/24/2002		
18th Street Gang (Pico-Union Injunction)	04/16/2002	*None*	10/18/2002		
Krazy Ass Mexicans (KAM)	10/03/2002	10/25/2002	01/16/2003		
The Avenues	12/17/2002	01/29/2003	04/07/2003		
Rolling Sixty Crips	07/08/2003	10/01/2003	11/24/2003		
Bounty Hunter Bloods	08/26/2003	10/01/2003	12/02/2003		
18th Street Gang (Hollywood Injunction)	11/04/2003	12/08/2003	03/16/2004		
Mara Salvatrucha (MS-13)	03/09/2004	04/08/2004	05/10/2004		
18th Street Gang (Wilshire Injunction)	04/06/2004	05/07/2004	06/29/2004		
38th Street Gang	07/28/2004	08/18/2004	11/22/2004		
Varrio Nueva Estrada	08/12/2004	09/21/2004	11/15/2004		
42nd, 43rd, and 48th Street Gangster Crips	12/16/2004	01/18/2005	04/07/2005		
Grape Street Crips	03/10/2005	04/15/2005	05/25/2005		
Hoover and Trouble Gangs	03/15/2005	05/24/2005	06/29/2005		
18th Street, Crazy Riders, DIA, Krazy Town, La Raza Loca, Orphans, Rockwood Street Locos, Varrio Vista Rifa, Wanderers, and Witmer Street Locos (10 Gang Injunction)	05/02/2005	06/03/2005	09/11/2005		
Hazard Grande	06/28/2005	08/16/2005	09/09/2005		
School Yard and Geer Street Crips	03/23/2006	06/08/2006	09/22/2006		
Playboys	05/08/2006	07/14/2006	09/21/2006		
Black P-Stones	05/25/2006	07/25/2006	09/21/2006		
White Fence	06/08/2006	07/24/2006	10/03/2006		
Clover, Eastlake, and Lincoln Heights Gangs	09/20/2006	10/23/2006	01/09/2007		
Dogtown Gang	10/06/2006	11/13/2006	12/13/2006		

Continued on next page

Table D.1: **List of Injunctions** (Continued)

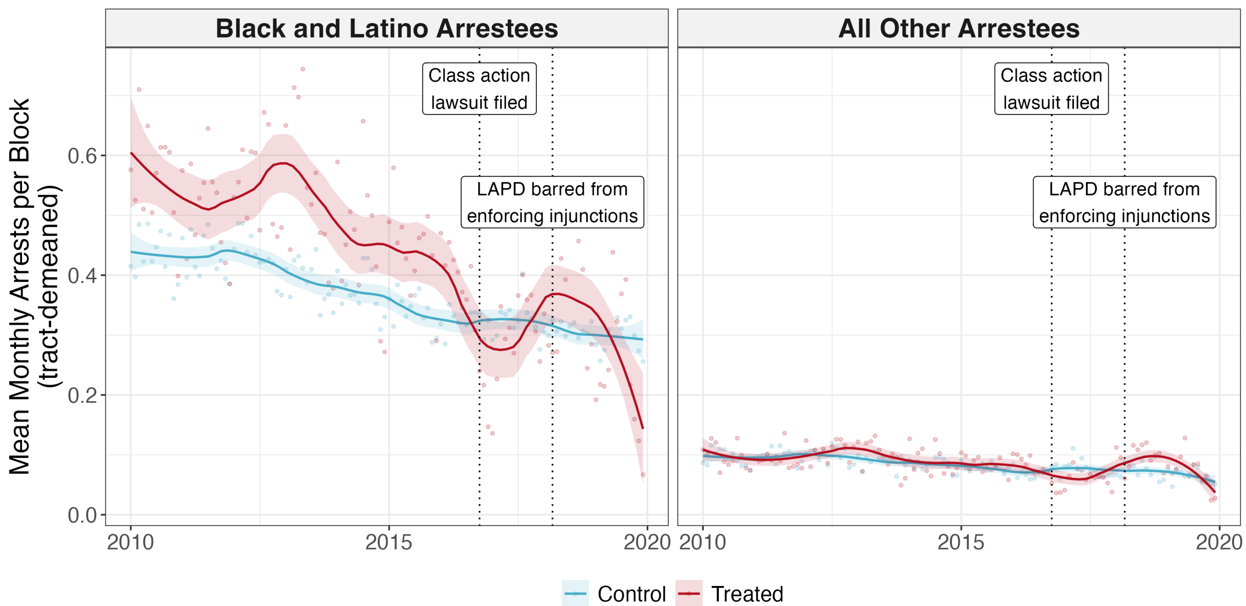
Case	Complaint Filed	Preliminary Injunction	Permanent Injunction	End Date	Resumed As
Highland Parque Gang	10/06/2006	11/13/2006	02/16/2007		
Rolling 40's, 46 Top Dollar Hustler, and 46 Neighborhood Crips	11/05/2007	01/29/2008	03/08/2008		
5th and Hill Gang	11/16/2007	02/05/2008	01/06/2009		
204th Street and East Side Torrance Gangs	12/07/2007	03/04/2008	07/07/2008		
San Fer	04/10/2008	06/24/2008	08/11/2008		
All for Crime, Barrio Mojados, Blood Stone Villans, Florencia 13, Oriental Boyz, and Pueblo Bishops (6 Gang Injunction)	09/05/2008	10/03/2008	01/14/2009		
East Side Pain/Ghost Town Bloods	10/10/2008	12/17/2008	06/11/2009		
Temple Street Gang	11/03/2008	12/30/2008	03/27/2009		
Toonerville Gang	11/14/2008	01/28/2009	03/18/2009		
Barrio Van Nuys	05/06/2009	06/03/2009	09/02/2009		
Swan Bloods, Florencia 13, Main Street Crips, and 7-Trey Hustlers/Gangster Crips (Fremont Injunction)	06/12/2009	08/24/2009	12/15/2009		
Grape Street Crips (Central City Injunction)	04/07/2010	11/30/2010	02/02/2011		
Rancho San Pedro	04/27/2011	06/03/2011	07/11/2011		
Columbus Street Gang	02/20/2013		06/27/2013		
Big Top Locos, Mayberry Crazys, Diamond Street Locos, Echo Park Locos, Frogtown Rifas, and Head Hunters (Glendale Corridor Injunction)	06/11/2013		09/24/2013		

Figure D.1: **Map of Gang Injunctions within Los Angeles County**



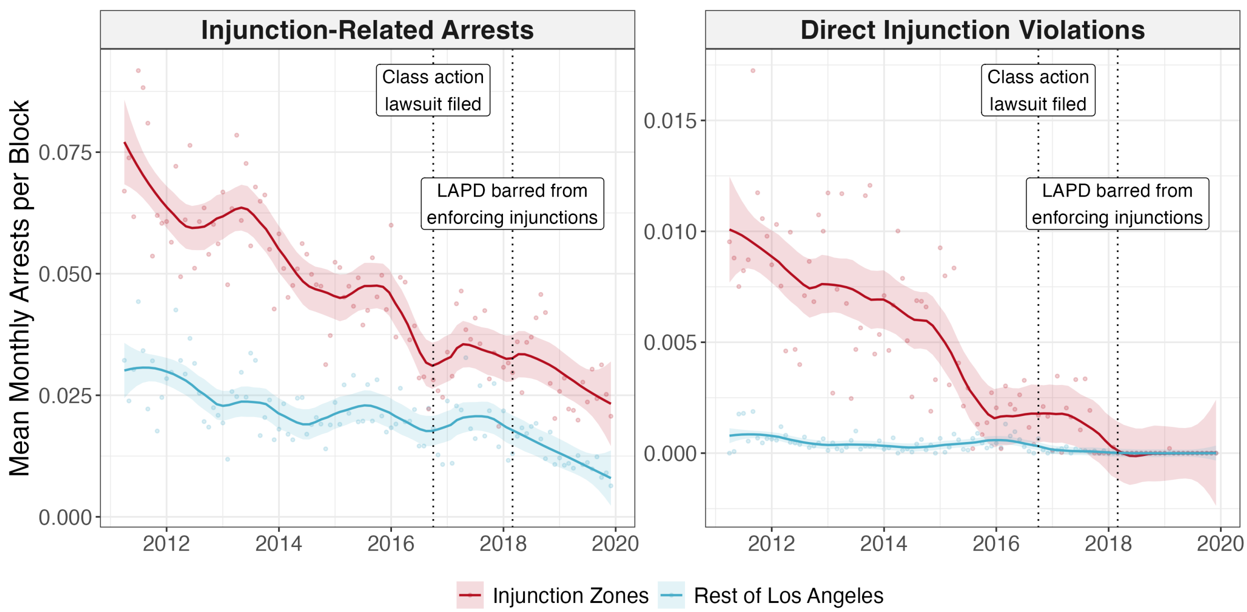
Note: Census blocks covered by active injunctions in 2014 are shaded in blue. This represents the maximum geographic extent of injunction safety zones within Los Angeles.

Figure D.2: **Arrests within the Injunction Safety Zones by Race**



Note: LOESS-smoothed mean Census block-level arrests by month in treated and control blocks, by race of the person arrested. Untreated blocks within 500m of an injunction boundary are omitted. Arrest counts come from incident-level data from the LAPD and are tract-demeaned to isolate within-neighborhood differences. Monthly means are weighted by the 2000 block population. The vertical dotted lines mark the filing of a class action lawsuit that challenged the city's gang injunction practices (October 2016) and a subsequent court order barring the LAPD from enforcing the injunctions (March 2018).

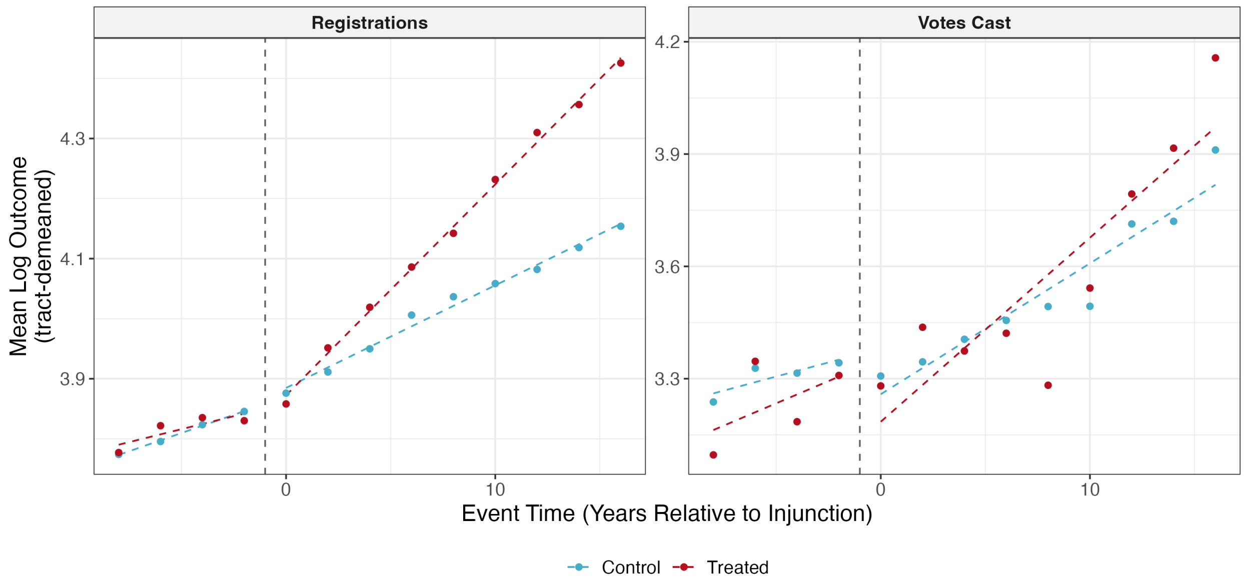
Figure D.3: **Injunction-related Arrests**



Note: LOESS-smoothed mean Census block-level arrests by month in the injunction safety zones and the rest of Los Angeles. "Injunction-related" arrests are arrests for violating an injunction as well as arrests for gang participation, arrests carrying gang enhancements under California's STEP Act (Penal Code 186.22), and arrests for curfew violations, vandalism and graffiti, trespassing, loitering, and disturbing the peace. The panel begins in April 2011; prior to this, injunction violations appear to have been booked under generic contempt charges. The vertical dotted lines mark the filing of a class action lawsuit that challenged the city's gang injunction practices (October 2016) and a subsequent court order barring the LAPD from enforcing the injunctions (March 2018).

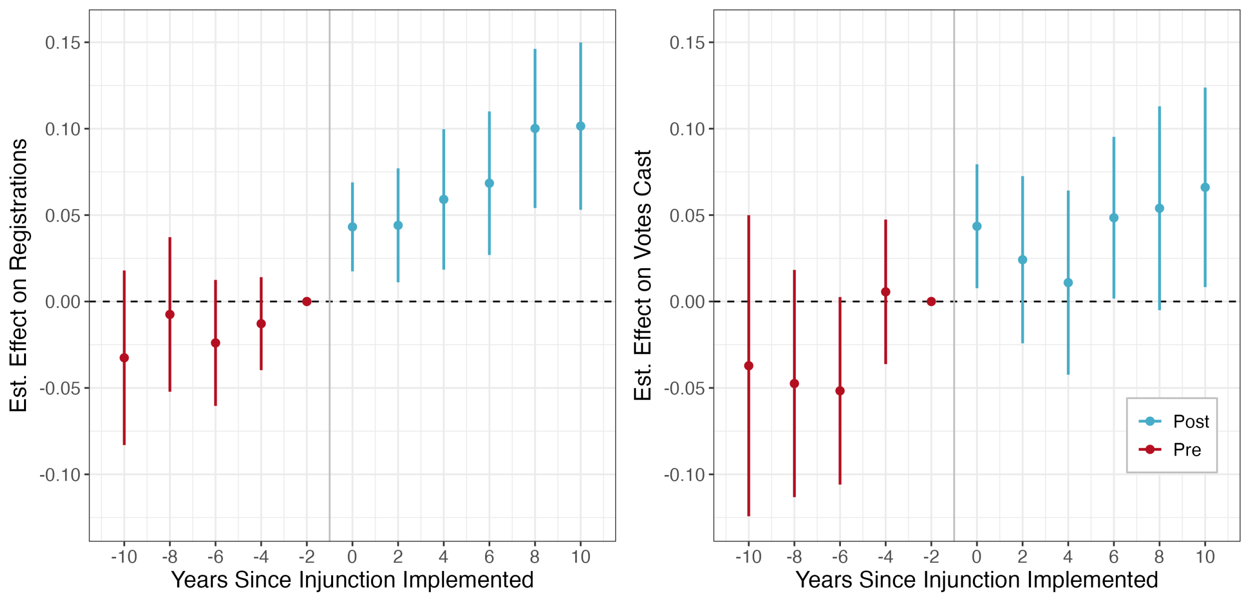
E Effects on Voting and Voter Registrations

Figure E.1: **Trends in Registrations and Voting in the Treated and Control Blocks**



Note: Mean logged Census block-level registrations and votes cast by event time, pooled across treatment cohorts. To reflect the within-tract variation that the difference-in-difference design leverages, each block's outcome is adjusted by subtracting its tract average and adding back the overall sample mean. Means are computed in two stages: first as unweighted averages within tract-cohort-period cells, then pooled across tracts. The dashed vertical line marks the implementation of the injunction. Dashed linear regression lines are fit separately to the pre- and post-treatment periods.

Figure E.2: **Effects on Voting and Voter Registrations: Event Study Estimates**



Note: Event study estimates of the effect of gang injunctions on logged Census block-level registrations (left) and votes cast (right) along with 95% confidence intervals. Specification is identical to the stacked difference-in-difference model presented in Equation 1, with the post-treatment indicator replaced by leads and lags of treatment.

Table E.1: **Effects on Voter Registrations**

	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)
Injunction	0.106^{***}	0.101^{***}	0.082^{***}	0.087^{***}	0.096^{***}
	(0.019)	(0.019)	(0.020)	(0.020)	(0.021)
100m	0.075^{***}	0.070^{***}	0.058^{***}	0.028^{**}	0.078^{***}
	(0.010)	(0.010)	(0.010)	(0.011)	(0.010)
500m	0.030^{***}	0.028^{***}	0.023^{***}	0.001	0.019^{***}
	(0.005)	(0.005)	(0.005)	(0.006)	(0.005)
1000m	0.004	0.004	0.001	-0.015^{**}	0.004
	(0.004)	(0.004)	(0.004)	(0.005)	(0.004)
Census block FE's	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Year-by-Census tract FE's	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Pop.-by-Year FE's		✓			
Race Comp.-by-Year FE's			✓		
Unbalanced panel				✓	✓
Constant block boundaries					✓
Pre-treat. mean (treated)	61.64	61.64	61.64	57.09	59.92
N. Observations	1633170	1633170	1633170	1826381	1413821
N. Blocks	20895	20895	20895	24755	18523
Adj. R^2	0.917	0.918	0.918	0.924	0.929
R^2 (within)	0.00	0.00	0.00	0.00	0.00

Note: Stacked difference-in-difference estimates of the effect of gang injunctions on the logged count of registrations in treated Census blocks. All models are estimated using OLS and include Census block and year-by-Census tract fixed effects. Model 1 presents the main specification. Model 2 includes deciles of the 2000 voting age population-by-year fixed effects. Model 3 includes quartiles of Black and Latino share of the 2000 population-by-year fixed effects. Model 4 expands the sample to the full, unbalanced panel. Model 5 restricts the sample to Census blocks fully nested within the 2010 block boundaries, so that counts are not based on areal interpolation. Robust standard errors clustered by Census block given in parentheses. $^{***}p < 0.001$; $^{**}p < 0.01$; $^{*}p < 0.05$.

Table E.2: **Effects on Voting**

	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)
Injunction	0.057^{*}	0.049^{*}	0.046^{*}	0.064^{**}	0.045^{*}
	(0.022)	(0.022)	(0.022)	(0.024)	(0.021)
100m	0.043^{**}	0.041^{*}	0.036^{*}	0.014	0.052^{***}
	(0.016)	(0.016)	(0.016)	(0.016)	(0.012)
500m	0.034^{***}	0.030^{***}	0.031^{***}	0.018^{*}	0.017^{**}
	(0.007)	(0.007)	(0.007)	(0.008)	(0.007)
1000m	0.020^{***}	0.020^{***}	0.019^{***}	0.011	0.013^{*}
	(0.005)	(0.005)	(0.005)	(0.006)	(0.005)
Census block FE's	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Year-by-Census tract FE's	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Pop.-by-Year FE's		✓			
Race Comp.-by-Year FE's			✓		
Unbalanced panel				✓	✓
Constant block boundaries					✓
Pre-treat. mean (treated)	32.42	32.42	32.42	31.16	31.35
N. Observations	867290	867290	867290	964886	842218
N. Blocks	19679	19679	19679	23100	19833
Adj. R^2	0.904	0.905	0.904	0.917	0.912
R^2 (within)	0.00	0.00	0.00	0.00	0.00

Note: Stacked difference-in-difference estimates of the effect of gang injunctions on the logged count of votes cast in treated Census blocks. All models are estimated using OLS and include Census block and year-by-Census tract fixed effects. Model 1 presents the main specification. Model 2 includes deciles of the 2000 voting age population-by-year fixed effects. Model 3 includes quartiles of Black and Latino share of the 2000 population-by-year fixed effects. Model 4 expands the sample to the full, unbalanced panel. Model 5 restricts the sample to Census blocks fully nested within the 2010 block boundaries, so that counts are not based on areal interpolation. Robust standard errors clustered by Census block given in parentheses. $^{***}p < 0.001$; $^{**}p < 0.01$; $^{*}p < 0.05$.

Table E.3: **Effects on Voting and Voter Registrations: Alternate Transformations**

	Registrations			Votes Cast		
	$ln(y+1)$	$sinh^{-1}y$	y	$ln(y+1)$	$sinh^{-1}y$	y
Injunction	0.106***	0.108***	12.075***	0.057*	0.061*	2.706*
	(0.019)	(0.021)	(2.516)	(0.022)	(0.025)	(1.149)
100m	0.075***	0.077***	3.719***	0.043**	0.043*	0.153
	(0.010)	(0.010)	(0.781)	(0.016)	(0.018)	(0.555)
500m	0.030***	0.029***	3.450***	0.034***	0.036***	1.764***
	(0.005)	(0.006)	(0.477)	(0.007)	(0.008)	(0.404)
1000m	0.004	0.002	0.876*	0.020***	0.021***	0.816**
	(0.004)	(0.005)	(0.362)	(0.005)	(0.006)	(0.293)
Census Block FE's	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Year-by-Census tract FE's	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Proximity controls	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Pre-treat. mean (treated)	61.64	61.64	61.64	32.42	32.42	32.42
N. Observations	1633170	1633170	1633170	867290	867290	867290
Adj. R^2	0.917	0.912	0.916	0.904	0.895	0.881
R^2 (within)	0.00	0.00	0.00	0.00	0.00	0.00

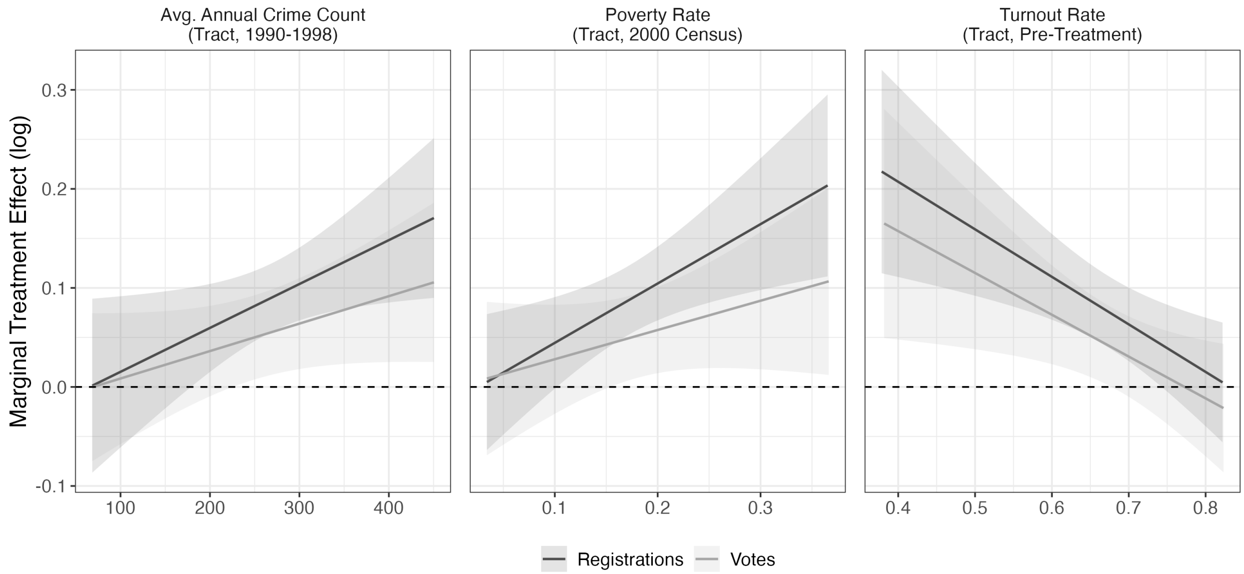
Note: Stacked difference-in-difference estimates of the effect of gang injunctions on registrations and votes cast in treated Census blocks, using alternate transformations of the outcomes. All models are estimated using OLS and include Census block and year-by-Census tract fixed effects. Models 1 and 4 use log-transformed counts of registrations and votes cast, Models 2 and 5 use the inverse hyperbolic sine transformation, and Models 3 and 6 use untransformed counts. Robust standard errors clustered by Census block given in parentheses. $^{***}p < 0.001$; $^{**}p < 0.01$; $^{*}p < 0.05$.

Table E.4: **Spillover Effects**

	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
In Safety Zone (Treated)	0.115 (0.021)***	0.107 (0.020)***	0.088 (0.021)***	0.082 (0.022)***
100m	0.083 (0.012)***	0.076 (0.012)***	0.064 (0.012)***	0.024 (0.013)
500m	0.039 (0.009)***	0.034 (0.009)***	0.032 (0.009)***	−0.003 (0.010)
1000m	0.012 (0.008)	0.010 (0.008)	0.012 (0.008)	−0.019 (0.009)*
1500m	0.009 (0.007)	0.007 (0.007)	0.010 (0.007)	−0.005 (0.008)
2000m	0.005 (0.006)	0.001 (0.006)	0.005 (0.006)	−0.004 (0.007)
2500m	0.005 (0.005)	0.003 (0.005)	0.006 (0.005)	0.014 (0.006)*
3000m	0.003 (0.004)	0.002 (0.004)	0.001 (0.004)	0.002 (0.004)
Census block FE's	✓	✓	✓	✓
Year-by-Census tract FE's	✓	✓	✓	✓
Pop.-by-Year FE's		✓	✓	
Race Comp.-by-Year FE's			✓	
Full sample				✓
Pre-treat. mean (treated)	61.64	61.64	61.64	57.09
N. Observations	1633170	1633170	1633170	1826381
Adj. R^2	0.917	0.918	0.919	0.924
R^2 (within)	0.00	0.00	0.00	0.00

Note: Stacked difference-in-difference estimates of the effect of gang injunctions on the logged count of registrations in treated Census blocks. All models are estimated using OLS and include Census block and year-by-Census tract fixed effects, along with mutually exclusive indicators of distance to the nearest safety zone boundary at 500 meter intervals up to 3 kilometers. A 100 meter interval is included as some injunctions included a buffer zone beyond the official boundaries in which the injunction restrictions could still be applied. Model 1 presents the main specification. Model 2 includes deciles of the 2000 voting age population-by-year fixed effects. Model 3 includes quartiles of Black and Latino share of the 2000 population-by-year fixed effects. Model 4 expands the sample to the full, unbalanced panel. Robust standard errors clustered by Census block given in parentheses. $^{***}p < 0.001$; $^{**}p < 0.01$; $^{*}p < 0.05$.

Figure E.3: **Marginal Treatment Effects by Tract-Level Characteristics**



Note: Marginal effects of gang injunctions on the logged count of registrations and votes cast in treated Census blocks. Stacked difference-in-difference models are estimated using OLS and include Census block and year-by-Census tract fixed effects. Heterogeneous effects are estimated by interacting the treatment indicator with continuous pre-treatment Census tract-level characteristics. Shaded bands indicate 95% confidence intervals.

Table E.5: **Effect of Injunctions by Block Racial Composition**

	Registrations	Votes Cast
Injunction	0.025	0.018
	(0.023)	(0.026)
100m	0.075***	0.043**
	(0.010)	(0.016)
500m	0.030***	0.034***
	(0.005)	(0.007)
1000m	0.004	0.021***
	(0.004)	(0.005)
2nd Quartile × Injunction	0.073***	0.030
	(0.015)	(0.019)
3rd Quartile × Injunction	0.150***	0.080**
	(0.020)	(0.025)
4th Quartile × Injunction	0.195***	0.097***
	(0.023)	(0.027)
Census Block FE's	✓	✓
Year-by-Census tract FE's	✓	✓
Pre-treat. mean (treated)	61.64	32.42
N. Observations	1633170	867290
Adj. R^2	0.917	0.904
R^2 (within)	0.00	0.00

Note: Stacked difference-in-difference estimates of the effect of gang injunctions on the logged count of registrations and votes cast in treated Census blocks. All models are estimated using OLS and include Census block and year-by-Census tract fixed effects. Both models interact the treatment indicator with quartiles of Black and Latino share of the 2000 population. Robust standard errors clustered by Census block given in parentheses. $^{***}p < 0.001$; $^{**}p < 0.01$; $^{*}p < 0.05$.

Table E.6: **Effect of Injunctions by Ethnicity**

	Registrations		Votes Cast	
	Latino	Asian	Latino	Asian
Injunction	0.122***	0.046	0.068*	−0.052
	(0.025)	(0.027)	(0.027)	(0.028)
100m	0.044***	−0.069***	0.023	−0.057***
	(0.012)	(0.013)	(0.017)	(0.015)
500m	0.052***	−0.006	0.038***	−0.011
	(0.007)	(0.008)	(0.009)	(0.009)
1000m	0.019**	−0.012*	0.027***	−0.014*
	(0.006)	(0.006)	(0.007)	(0.007)
Census Block FE's	✓	✓	✓	✓
Year-by-Census tract FE's	✓	✓	✓	✓
Pre-treat. mean (treated)	21.27	3.93	11.36	1.93
N. Observations	1633170	1633170	867290	867290
Adj. R^2	0.906	0.821	0.886	0.795
R^2 (within)	0.00	0.00	0.00	0.00

Note: Stacked difference-in-difference estimates of the effect of gang injunctions on the logged count of registrations and votes cast by Latino and Asian voters in treated Census blocks. All models are estimated using OLS and include Census block and year-by-Census tract fixed effects. Robust standard errors clustered by Census block given in parentheses. $^{***}p < 0.001$; $^{**}p < 0.01$; $^{*}p < 0.05$.

Table E.7: **Controlled Direct Effect of Gang Injunctions on Voter Registration**

	Mediator		
	None (1)	All Crime (2)	Violent Crime (3)
Injunction	0.105*	0.105*	0.105*
	(0.049)	(0.049)	(0.049)
Census block FE's	✓	✓	✓
Year-by-Census tract FE's	✓	✓	✓
Proximity controls	✓	✓	✓
Arrests in first stage		✓	✓
Pre-treat. mean (treated)	61.18	61.18	61.18

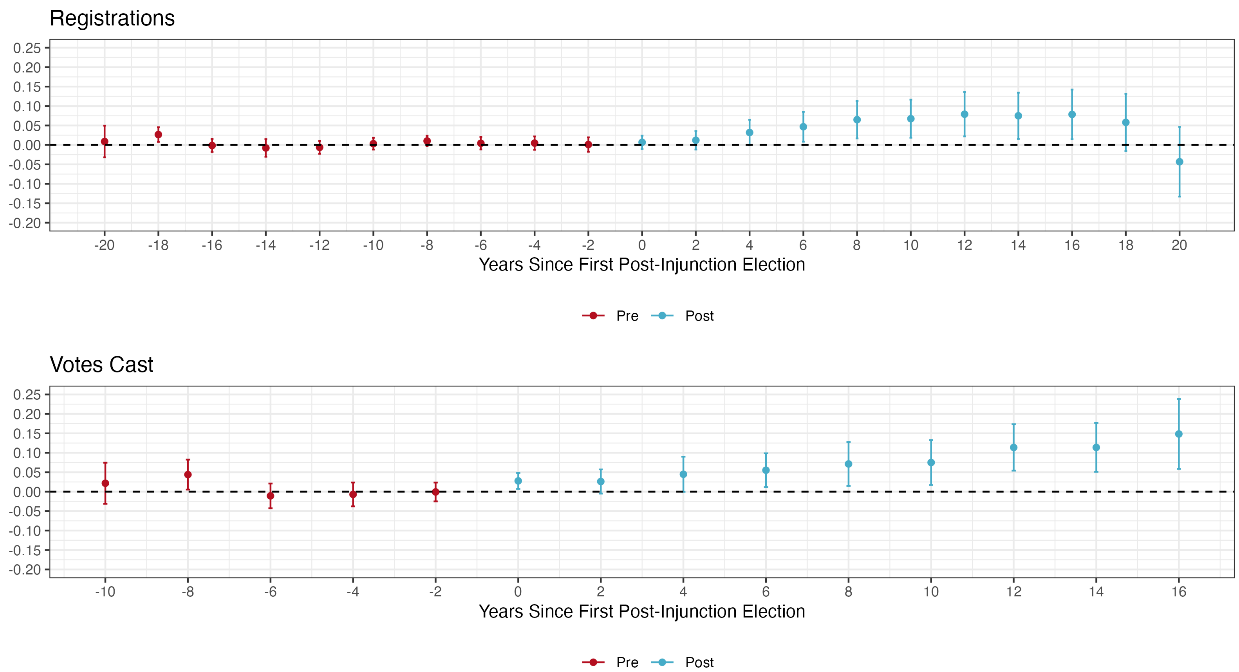
Note: Stacked difference-in-difference estimates of the effect of gang injunctions on the logged count of registrations in treated Census blocks. All models are estimated using OLS and include Census block and year-by-Census tract fixed effects. Model 1 re-estimates Equation 1 on the subset of blocks treated after 2010, using elections between 2010 and 2018. Models 2 and 3 estimate the controlled direct effect (CDE) of injunctions on registrations net of Census block-level total and violent crime, respectively, using sequential g-estimation with Census block-level arrest counts included as an intermediate confounder in the first stage. Block-bootstrapped standard errors given in parentheses. $^{***}p < 0.001$; $^{**}p < 0.01$; $^{*}p < 0.05$.

Table E.8: **Synthetic Difference-in-Difference Estimates on Voting and Voter Registrations**

Treatment Group	log(Registrations)	log(Votes)
2002	**0.136**	–
	[0.099, 0.173]	–
2004	**0.109**	–
	[0.088, 0.131]	–
2006	**0.134**	**0.086**
	[0.112, 0.156]	**[0.063, 0.110]**
2008	**0.123**	**0.090**
	[0.099, 0.147]	**[0.065, 0.115]**
2010	**0.090**	**0.049**
	[0.055, 0.125]	**[0.016, 0.081]**
2012	0.026	0.014
	[-0.012, 0.065]	[-0.023, 0.051]
2014	**0.043**	**0.049**
	[0.020, 0.067]	**[0.021, 0.076]**
Aggregated Effect	0.112	0.075

Note: Synthetic difference-in-difference estimates of the effect of gang injunctions on the logged count of registrations and votes cast in treated Census blocks. Estimates for the effect of injunctions on votes cast are not available for the 2002 and 2004 treatment groups due to a lack of sufficient pre-treatment observations. The aggregate effect is the weighted average of cohort-specific estimates, with the weights derived from the proportion of the total number of block-year treatment observations that occur in each treatment-timing group (Arkhangelsky et al. 2021). To ensure comparability to the main stacked difference-in-difference specifications with year-by-Census tract fixed effects, each model is fit on a balanced panel of Census blocks in tracts that are (partially) covered by an injunction at any point between 2000 and 2020. Bootstrapped 95% CI's given in brackets. Bolded estimates indicate that confidence intervals exclude zero.

Figure E.4: **Event Study Estimates (Callaway and Sant'Anna Estimator)**



Note: Dynamic difference-in-difference estimates of the effect of gang injunctions on the logged count of registrations and votes cast in treated Census blocks. Models are estimated using semi-parametric, propensity-score weighted methods developed by Sant'Anna and Zhao (2020). The parallel trends assumption is relaxed to be conditional on the 2000 voting-age population (logged) and the share of the 2000 population that is Latino and Black. To ensure comparability to the main stacked difference-in-difference specifications with year-by-Census tract fixed effects, each model is fit on Census blocks in tracts that are (partially) covered by an injunction at any point between 2000 and 2020. Bars indicate bootstrapped 95% simultaneous CI's that account for multiple hypothesis testing.

Table E.9: **Ring Difference-in-Difference Estimates**

	Registrations						Votes Cast					
	500m–1500m			1000m–2000m			500m–1500m			1000m–2000m		
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)	(7)	(8)	(9)	(10)	(11)	(12)
Injunction	0.111***	0.084***	0.061***	0.109***	0.081***	0.057***	0.051***	0.031***	0.026**	0.080***	0.056***	0.061***
	(0.009)	(0.010)	(0.010)	(0.010)	(0.010)	(0.010)	(0.008)	(0.008)	(0.008)	(0.009)	(0.009)	(0.010)
Census block FE's	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Year-by-zone FE's	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Pop.-by-year-by-zone FE's		✓			✓			✓			✓	
Race comp.-by-year-by-zone FE's			✓			✓			✓			✓
Pre-treat. mean (treated)	60.40	60.40	60.40	60.59	60.59	60.59	32.00	32.00	32.00	32.05	32.05	32.05
N. Observations	216510	216510	216510	191910	191910	191910	120710	120710	120710	105010	105010	105010
N. Blocks	10885	10885	10885	10142	10142	10142	9132	9132	9132	8416	8416	8416
N. Zones	38	38	38	37	37	37	29	29	29	29	29	29
Adj. R^2	0.890	0.893	0.895	0.889	0.892	0.894	0.884	0.888	0.888	0.878	0.883	0.883
R^2 (within)	0.007	0.004	0.002	0.006	0.003	0.001	0.001	0.000	0.000	0.002	0.001	0.001

Note: Stacked difference-in-difference estimates of the effect of gang injunctions on the logged count of registrations and votes cast in treated Census blocks. All models are estimated using OLS and include Census block and year-by-injunction group fixed effects, where each injunction group is defined by an individual injunction safety zone and a set of untreated Census blocks within a fixed distance from that safety zone's boundaries. Untreated controls in Models 1–3 and 7–9 are defined as those 500m–1500m from the nearest injunction boundary. Untreated controls in Models 4–6 and 10–12 are 1000m–2000m from the nearest injunction boundary. Control blocks that are within the inner radius (either 500m or 1000m) of any other injunction zone are excluded to prevent spillover contamination. Robust standard errors clustered by Census block given in parentheses. $^{***}p < 0.001$; $^{**}p < 0.01$; $^{*}p < 0.05$.

F Ballot Propositions

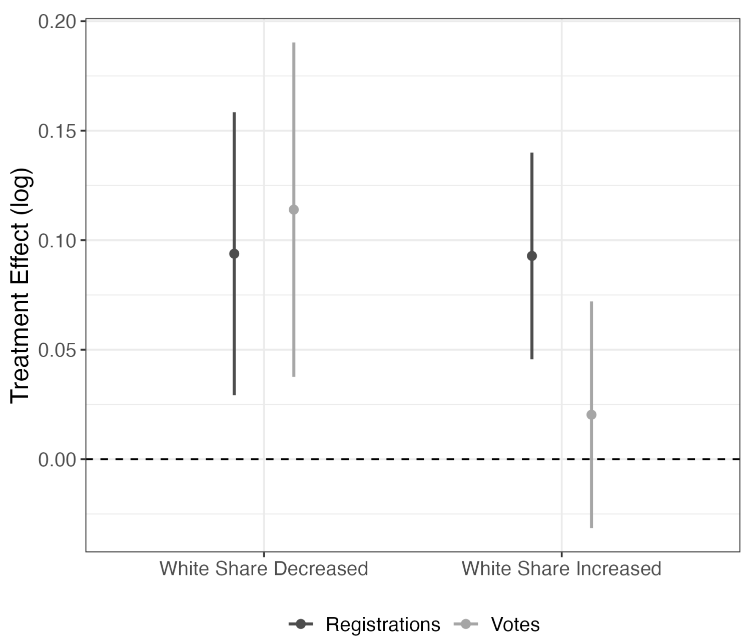
Table F.1: **Placebo Tests of Future Gang Injunctions on Ballot Proposition Support**

	Prop. 66 (2004)	Prop. 5 (2008)	Prop. 36 (2012)
Future Injunction	−0.009	0.014	−0.010
	(0.006)	(0.008)	(0.007)
Census tract FE's	✓	✓	✓
Pre-treat. mean (treated)	0.362	0.468	0.796
N. Observations	22680	22522	23033
Adj. R^2	0.637	0.551	0.691
R^2 (within)	0.00	0.00	0.00

Note: Estimates of the "effect" of future gang injunctions on the share of votes in favor of a given ballot proposition, comparing Census blocks that would be placed under an injunction at some point after the election to other blocks in the same tract. All models are estimated using OLS and include Census tract fixed effects. Robust standard errors clustered by Census block in parentheses. $^{***}p < 0.001$; $^{**}p < 0.01$; $^{*}p < 0.05$.

G Population Change

Figure G.1: **Treatment Effects by Change in White Population Share (2000–2020)**



Note: Stacked difference-in-difference estimates of the effect of gang injunctions on the logged count of registrations and votes cast in treated Census blocks, fit separately for Census blocks in tracts where the White share of the population decreased or increased between the 2000 and 2020 Decennial Censuses. All models are estimated using OLS and include Census block and year-by-Census tract fixed effects. Bars indicate 95% confidence intervals.

Table G.1: **Effect of Injunctions on Population (2000–2020)**

	N. Residents	N. Registrants	Prop. Black	Prop. Latino	Prop. White
Injunction	−2.691	8.763***	−0.006	−0.019**	0.029***
	(3.458)	(2.431)	(0.005)	(0.007)	(0.005)
Census Block FE's	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Year-by-Census tract FE's	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Pre-treat. mean (treated)	190.03	59.15	0.182	0.536	0.174
N. Observations	71301	71301	70246	70246	70246
Adj. R^2	0.945	0.868	0.887	0.906	0.922
R^2 (within)	0.00	0.00	0.00	0.00	0.00

Note: Difference-in-difference estimates of the effect of gang injunctions on population characteristics in the 2000, 2010, and 2020 Decennial Censuses. All models are estimated using OLS and include Census block and year-by-Census tract fixed effects. Model 1 gives the estimated effect on the untransformed count of residents. Model 2 gives the estimated effect on the untransformed count of registered voters for comparison. Models 3–5 give the estimated effects on the proportion of the block-level population that is Black, Latino, and White, respectively. Robust standard errors clustered by Census block given in parentheses. $^{***}p < 0.001$; $^{**}p < 0.01$; $^{*}p < 0.05$.

H Effects on Non-Electoral Participation

Table H.1: **Balance Statistics, Covariate Balanced Propensity Score (CBPS) Weights**

Covariates	Diff. Unweighted	Diff. Weighted	Bal. Test
Propensity Score	1.328	0.138	
Latino	0.281	0.009	Balanced, <0.05
White	-0.266	-0.005	Balanced, <0.05
Black	0.023	-0.002	Balanced, <0.05
Asian	-0.037	-0.001	Balanced, <0.05
Age	-0.575	-0.028	Balanced, <0.05
Female	0.045	0.001	Balanced, <0.05
College Degree	-0.212	-0.005	Balanced, <0.05
Less than High School Degree	0.192	0.002	Balanced, <0.05
Child lives at home	0.069	0.006	Balanced, <0.05
Homeowner	-0.284	-0.007	Balanced, <0.05
Moved in past 2 years	0.121	0.005	Balanced, <0.05
Nbrhd. Residential Stability	1.730	0.102	Not Balanced, >0.05
Nbrhd. Disadvantage Score	1.525	0.020	Balanced, <0.05
Nbrhd. Immigrant Concentration	-1.476	-0.036	Balanced, <0.05
Nbrhd. Percent Black	0.392	0.008	Balanced, <0.05
Effective Sample Sizes	N. Unweighted	N. Weighted	
Treated	182	182	
Untreated	998	166	

Note: Neighborhood covariates come from tract-level data from the 2000 Census. Residential stability is the first principal component of the share of owner-occupied housing units and residents who moved in the past five years; immigrant concentration is the first principal component of the Latino and foreign-born shares of the population. Neighborhood disadvantage is the weighted least squares score from a factor analysis of seven items: the percentage of the population living under the poverty line, families receiving public assistance income, residents with less than a high school education, residents without a college degree, population under 18, families headed by single women, and residents who are unemployed.

Table H.2: **Effect of Injunctions on Participation and Perceived Safety (Tract by Wave Fixed Effects)**

	Non-electoral Participation	Crime Victimization	Neighborhood Safety
Injunction	0.265***	-0.027***	-0.480
	(0.062)	(0.002)	(0.309)
N. Observations	2,372	2,372	2,355
Adj. R^2	0.31	0.35	0.37
R^2 (within)	0.00	0.00	0.01

Note: Robust standard errors clustered by household and Census tract in parentheses. $^{***}p < 0.001$; $^{**}p < 0.01$; $^{*}p < 0.05$.

Table H.3: **Effect Heterogeneity of Injunctions on Non-electoral Participation**

	(1)	(2)	(3)
Injunction	0.242**	0.206*	0.061
	(0.067)	(0.064)	(0.086)
Injunction × Under 30		0.104*	
		(0.040)	
Injunction × Black/Latino			0.211*
			(0.070)
N. Observations	412	412	412
Adj. R^2	0.26	0.27	0.28
R^2 (within)	0.06	0.07	0.08

Note: Robust standard errors clustered by household and Census tract in parentheses. $^{***}p < 0.001$; $^{**}p < 0.01$; $^{*}p < 0.05$.

Table H.4: **Count Models of Injunctions on Participation**

	(1)	(2)	(3)
Injunction	1.981**	1.781*	0.316
	(0.760)	(0.709)	(1.099)
Injunction × Under 30		1.989**	
		(0.729)	
Injunction × Black/Latino			1.929*
			(0.847)
N. Observations	110	110	110
Pseudo R^2	0.35	0.37	0.37
Pseudo R^2 (within)	0.05	0.07	0.08

Note: Robust standard errors clustered by household and Census tract in parentheses. $^{***}p < 0.001$; $^{**}p < 0.01$; $^{*}p < 0.05$.

Table H.5: **Effect of Injunctions on Non-electoral Participation by Activity Type**

	Block Org. Meeting	Civic/Business Group	Ethnic Pride Club	Political Org.	Volunteering
Injunction	0.067*	-0.017	0.122	0.095***	0.019
	(0.019)	(0.015)	(0.040)	(0.013)	(0.020)
N. Observations	412	412	412	412	412
Adj. R^2	0.13	0.07	-0.02	0.06	0.58
R^2 (within)	0.01	0.00	0.03	0.04	0.00

Note: Each column presents estimates from Equation 2 fit on a binary indicator for the specified form of non-electoral participation. Sample restricted to respondents living in treated Census tracts. Robust standard errors clustered by household and Census tract in parentheses, with Bonferroni-corrected adjusted significance thresholds to account for multiple hypothesis testing. $^{***}p < 2e-04$; $^{**}p < 0.002$; $^{*}p < 0.01$.

Table H.6: **Effect Heterogeneity by Police Contact**

	(1)	(2)
Injunction	0.229**	0.144*
	(0.065)	(0.065)
Injunction × Neg. Police Encounter	0.152	0.131
	(0.116)	(0.154)
N. Observations	408	2,335
Adj. R^2	0.27	0.22
R^2 (within)	0.06	0.03

Note: Model 1 restricts the sample to respondents living in treated Census tracts. Model 2 is estimated using the entire sample and CBPS weights. Robust standard errors clustered by household and Census tract in parentheses. $^{***}p < 0.001$; $^{**}p < 0.01$; $^{*}p < 0.05$.

Table H.7: **Placebo Test of Future Injunctions on Civic Participation and Perceived Safety**

	Non-electoral Participation	Crime Victimization	Neighborhood Safety
Future Injunction	-0.168	-0.023	0.484
	(0.110)	(0.087)	(0.170)
N. Observations	164	164	163
Adj. R^2	0.04	0.61	0.20
R^2 (within)	0.01	0.00	0.09

Note: Robust standard errors clustered by household and Census tract in parentheses. $^{***}p < 0.001$; $^{**}p < 0.01$; $^{*}p < 0.05$.

Table H.8: **Effect of Injunctions on Self-reported Experiences of Police Discrimination (Full Model Results)**

	(1)	(2)	(3)
Variables			
Injunction	2.852*	2.341**	1.944***
	(1.254)	(0.900)	(0.502)
Age		-0.061***	-0.068***
		(0.010)	(0.018)
Male		1.963***	2.678***
		(0.334)	(0.657)
Black		0.063	1.087
		(0.432)	(0.845)
Latino		0.041	-0.043
		(0.322)	(0.553)
U.S. Born		0.788**	0.102
		(0.297)	(0.456)
Food Stamps		0.412	-0.373
		(0.418)	(0.861)
College Grad.		-0.101	0.399
		(0.535)	(0.926)
Less than HS		0.611*	-0.150
		(0.310)	(0.900)
log(Family Income)		0.105	0.137
		(0.081)	(0.168)
Imm. Concentration			-1.493*
			(0.747)
Res. Mobility			0.162
			(0.591)
Percent Black			0.002
			(0.036)
Con. Disadvantage			1.074
			(0.586)
Crime 1999			0.025
			(0.017)
Crime 2000			0.007
			(0.004)
Crime 2001			-0.023
			(0.014)
Constant			-8.546**
			(2.897)
Census Tract FE's	✓	✓	
N. Observations	1,595	1,562	346
Pseudo R^2	0.17	0.37	0.52

Note: Logit estimates. The outcome is a binary indicator for whether the respondent reported being unfairly stopped, searched, questioned, physically threatened, or verbally abused by the police in the five years prior to Wave II of the survey. Models 1 and 2 include Census tract fixed effects. Model 2 includes individual-level covariates measured at Wave I. Model 3 does not include Census tract fixed effects and instead restricts comparisons to respondents living in Census blocks that would be covered by an injunction in the future. Robust standard errors clustered by household and Census tract given in parentheses. $^{***}p < 0.001$; $^{**}p < 0.01$; $^{*}p < 0.05$.

Table H.9: **Effect of Injunctions on Experiences of Discrimination by Race and Sex**

	(1)	(2)	(3)
Variables			
Injunction	1.944***	1.854***	0.428
	(0.502)	(0.467)	(0.920)
Male	2.678***	2.802***	0.336
	(0.657)	(0.606)	(0.452)
Black	1.087	1.256	0.721
	(0.845)	(0.672)	(0.842)
Latino	-0.043		-0.210
	(0.553)		(0.503)
Age	-0.068***	-0.064**	-0.066***
	(0.018)	(0.020)	(0.019)
U.S. Born	0.102	-0.237	0.181
	(0.456)	(0.544)	(0.470)
Food Stamps	-0.373	-0.192	-0.350
	(0.861)	(0.869)	(0.868)
College Grad.	0.399	0.363	0.896
	(0.926)	(0.888)	(1.188)
Less than HS	-0.150	-0.482	-0.152
	(0.900)	(1.039)	(0.932)
log(Family Income)	0.137	0.155	0.120
	(0.168)	(0.189)	(0.179)
Imm. Concentration	-1.493*	-1.395	-1.563*
	(0.747)	(0.879)	(0.706)
Res. Mobility	0.162	-0.196	0.025
	(0.591)	(0.653)	(0.620)
Percent Black	0.002	0.000	0.003
	(0.036)	(0.034)	(0.035)
Con. Disadvantage	1.074	0.844	1.023
	(0.586)	(0.682)	(0.586)
Crime 1999	0.025	0.018	0.025
	(0.017)	(0.016)	(0.017)
Crime 2000	0.007	0.010*	0.008
	(0.004)	(0.004)	(0.005)
Crime 2001	-0.023	-0.020	-0.024
	(0.014)	(0.013)	(0.014)
Injunction × Male			2.703**
			(0.938)
Constant	-8.546**	-7.932**	-7.067*
	(2.897)	(2.781)	(2.971)
Fit statistics			
N. Observations	346	306	346
Pseudo R^2	0.52	0.46	0.53

Note: Logit estimates. The outcome is a binary indicator for whether the respondent reported being unfairly stopped, searched, questioned, physically threatened, or verbally abused by the police in the five years prior to Wave II of the survey. Comparisons are between respondents whose Census block was placed under an injunction between the two survey waves, and respondents whose Census block would be treated some time after Wave II. Model 1 is identical to Model 3 of Table H.8. Model 2 restricts the sample to respondents who identified as either Black or Latino. Model 3 interacts the treatment indicator with sex. Robust standard errors clustered by household and Census tract given in parentheses. $^{***}p < 0.001$; $^{**}p < 0.01$; $^{*}p < 0.05$.